

Starfighters—On the General Applicability of X-Wing

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Abstract. In this work, we present a comprehensive analysis of QSF, the KEM combiner used by X-Wing (Communications in Cryptology 1(1), 2024). While the X-Wing paper focuses on the application of QSF to ML-KEM-768 and X25519, we discuss the combiner’s applicability to other post-quantum KEMs and ECDH instantiations.

Particularly, we establish the compatibility of QSF to KEMs based on variants of the Fujisaki-Okamoto transform by proving ciphertext second-preimage resistance (C2PRI) for these variants. Building on these results, we show that QSF is compatible with, to the best of our knowledge, all post-quantum KEMs currently standardized or considered for standardization—including ML-KEM, (e)FrodoKEM, HQC, Classic McEliece, and various NTRU variants. Notably, this means these schemes can be used with QSF to construct PQ/T hybrid KEMs.

In addition, we introduce QSI, a variant of QSF that combines two KEMs by hashing their shared keys, yielding a KEM that is IND-CCA-secure as long as one constituent KEM is IND-CCA-secure and the other is C2PRI-secure. We establish the same compatibility results for QSI as for QSF.

Finally, we analyze both QSF and QSI regarding (their preservation of) the recently introduced family of binding properties for KEMs.

Keywords: Post-quantum cryptography, KEM, KEM combiner, FO transform, hybrid, IND-CCA, C2PRI, HON-BIND, LEAK-BIND, MAL-BIND, QSF, X-Wing, QSI.

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1 Introduction

The store-now-decrypt-later attack—where an attacker *stores* encrypted data *now* to *decrypt* it *later* when it gains access to a sufficiently powerful quantum computer—puts a certain urgency on the transition to post-quantum cryptography, i.e., cryptography that is resistant to attacks from both classical and quantum computers. Consequently, security agencies worldwide are urging institutions and companies to initiate this transition [Can25, Com25, Nat25b, Nat25a]. While exact timelines differ, all of them target completion within the next decade. Some prominent security advisories recommend hybrid approaches, often referred to as *PQ/T hybrids*, which combine a post-quantum solution with a traditional one [Com25]. This recommendation stems from the commonly noted concern that the to-be-deployed post-quantum schemes have not yet undergone the same level of scrutiny—both in terms of cryptanalysis and implementation security—as traditional schemes based on, e.g., elliptic curves or RSA. Hybrids aim to minimize risk in case the post-quantum solution proves vulnerable or falters. Typically, these hybrids are defined using *combiners*: cryptographic constructions that take several schemes as input and produce a single scheme that is secure as long as *at least one* of the input schemes is secure.

When considering quantum computers, the core primitive for achieving confidentiality in the public-key setting is the key encapsulation mechanism (KEM). Unlike conventional public-key encryption (PKE) schemes, KEMs are specifically designed for the transport of secret key material—often referred to as shared key or session key, after its typical use case. Instead of transmitting the encryption of a message via a ciphertext, a KEM transmits the encryption of key material via an *encapsulation* (sometimes also called ciphertext). The encapsulation algorithm of a KEM takes only the recipient’s public key pk as input—particularly, it does *not* take a message as input, unlike the encryption algorithm of a PKE scheme—and produces both a shared key k and an encapsulation c . The recipient can then *decapsulate* c using the private key corresponding to pk , recovering k . Because the encapsulation algorithm generates the shared key, it is easier to achieve strong security guarantees with KEMs than it is with traditional PKE schemes.

In the context of KEMs, the goal of a combiner is typically to combine multiple KEMs such that the resulting KEM satisfies the conventional *indistinguishability under chosen-ciphertext attacks* (IND-CCA) property, provided *at least one* of its constituent KEMs does. (However, some combiners may require additional security properties from the KEMs that do *not* satisfy IND-CCA, as discussed below.) The theoretical problem of constructing such combiners was thoroughly studied in a detailed work by Giacon, Heuer, and Poettering [GHP18]. In particular, they analyzed several methods of combining shared key/encapsulation pairs (k_0, c_0) and (k_1, c_1) , generated by two (constituent) KEMs, into a final shared key/encapsulation pair produced by the combiner. While virtually all of their proposals construct the final encapsulation as (c_0, c_1) , each differs in how they produce the final shared key, which may depend on the shared keys, encapsulations and public keys of the constituent KEMs. For example, they observe that producing the final shared key as

$$k = H(k_0, k_1, c_0, c_1)$$

results in an IND-CCA-secure combiner if H is a so-called split-key pseudo-random function family, which they further show is the case when H is modeled as a random oracle (see Section 2.1 for some further details).

Beyond the black-box constructions presented in [GHP18], there has been significant interest in optimizing combiners for high-throughput applications, such as TLS. In this context, [BCD⁺24], Barbosa, Connolly, Diogo Duarte, Kaiser, Schwabe, Varner, and Westerbaan put forth X-Wing, arguing that the above combiner can be optimized when using ML-KEM-768. Particularly, they demonstrated that ML-KEM-768’s encapsulation may be omitted from the input to H because this KEM satisfies ciphertext second-preimage resistance C2PRI, a novel security notion they introduced by the authors. For their argument, however, it is crucial that ML-KEM-768 satisfies this notion even if its underlying (lattice-based) computational hardness assumption proves to be incorrect. Furthermore, rather than using another IND-CCA-secure KEM for the other scheme in the combiner, X-Wing employs X25519, a non-interactive key exchange (NIKE) that only achieves the (weaker) one-wayness security notion OW-PCVA.⁴ To compensate for this, X-Wing includes the X25519 encapsulation in the input to H , ensuring (pre-quantum) IND-CCA security in case ML-KEM-768 is found to be vulnerable. For resilience against multi-user attacks, X-Wing additionally incorporates the X25519 public key in the input to H . In summary, X-Wing computes its final shared as

$$k = H(k_0, k_1, c_1, \text{pk}_1, \text{context}) ,$$

⁴ Although a NIKE can trivially be transformed into a KEM by performing an ephemeral-static key exchange—letting the ephemeral public key and (final) derived key serve as the encapsulation and shared key, respectively—this does *not* result in an IND-CCA-secure KEM for X25519 due to its algebraic properties. This can be fixed by instead establishing the shared key as a hash of the derived key and the ephemeral public key [CS03].

where k_0 denotes ML-KEM’s shared key, and k_1 , c_1 , and pk_1 denote X25519’s shared key, encapsulation and public key.

Afterward, Josefsson noted that the artifacts processed by the general combiner from [GHP18] can be quite large, which may pose challenges for, e.g., constrained devices [Jos25]. To address this issue, Josefsson proposed Chempat, a KEM combiner that allows for memory reduction by hashing these large artifacts (when possible) before using them as inputs to H :⁵

$$k = H(k_0, k_1, H(c_0, c_1), H(\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1), \text{context}) .$$

Several other proposals have emerged over time, such as ETSI’s CasKDF and CatKDF [ETS25], and discussions regarding the choice of combiner have become increasingly intense. In part, this is because the original analysis from [GHP18] does not apply to the newer combiners. For instance, the work introducing X-Wing also describes the underlying generic combiner, QSF. However, QSF imposes additional requirements on both of its constituents, as discussed above (for X-Wing). While the authors of X-Wing did note that the C2PRI property holds for the variant of the Fujisaki-Okamoto (FO) transform used by ML-KEM, their detailed analysis was limited to specific schemes used for X-Wing, ML-KEM-768 and X25519. Moreover, recent work by Cremers, Dax, and Medinger has sparked further debate [CDM24], as the novel security properties they introduce—called binding properties—are used as arguments both for and against certain combiners.

The GHP, Chempat, QSF, and X-Wing constructions have been picked up by standardization bodies, including IETF/IRTF [CBG25, CB25]. However, several questions remain unanswered. The primary advantage of QSF and X-Wing is their efficiency, while that of GHP and Chempat is their versatility—in the sense that they can be used with any two KEMs and provide IND-CCA security if at least one of the constituent KEMs is IND-CCA-secure.⁶ In contrast, for QSF, it is unclear whether ML-KEM-768 can even be replaced by a different KEM without sacrificing security guarantees in case X25519 becomes insecure. This is an issue as there are KEMs *other* than ML-KEM, such as HQC, Classic McEliece, and FrodoKEM, that are considered in practice and for standardization (by, e.g., ISO). Moreover, to the best of our knowledge, there has been no formal analysis of the different proposals regarding their impact on binding properties prior to this work. Since it is trivial to devise a combiner that undermines any binding properties of its constituents, performing such an analysis seems crucial if these properties are a security concern.

OUR CONTRIBUTION. In this work, we take an extensive look at the QSF proposal and its underlying ideas to fill the previously mentioned gaps for QSF. Specifically, we first introduce and analyze a variant of QSF that combines two arbitrary KEMs (encompassing the case of PQ/T hybrids), so that it is IND-CCA secure as long as at least one constituent KEM satisfies IND-CCA and the other satisfies C2PRI. We call this variant *Quantum Superiority Interceptor* (QSI), which computes the final shared key as

$$k = H(k_0, k_1, \text{context}) .$$

We prove that this fulfills the above claim of preserving IND-CCA, using C2PRI. In particular, for PQ/T hybrids this means that, if the post-quantum KEM’s IND-CCA security fails, QSI remains IND-CCA-secure as long as the post-quantum KEM still satisfies C2PRI and the pre-quantum KEM satisfies IND-CCA. Similarly, if the pre-quantum KEM’s IND-CCA security fails (e.g., under attack by a quantum adversary), QSI remains IND-CCA-secure as long as the pre-quantum KEM still satisfies C2PRI-secure and the post-quantum KEM satisfies IND-CCA.

⁵ In addition, Chempat makes several concrete choices concerning, e.g., combinations of algorithms; however, this is not relevant to this work.

⁶ Although there is no detailed proof for Chempat, Bernstein has rightfully pointed out that the additional hashing steps do not make a difference in case H is modeled as a random oracle.

Notably, as a KEM may achieve C2PRI through a secure hash function, requiring this property from QSI’s constituents does not seem much of an additional assumption. That is, because QSI already relies on the security of a hash function, a compromise of such security would nullify the overall security of the combiner regardless.⁷ To limit the attack surface, it therefore seems reasonable to reuse the same hash function for both constituent KEMs and QSI, provided that proper domain separation is employed for different applications.⁸

In essence, QSI is a modification of QSF that optimizes the inputs to the combiner hash when combining two KEMs that were designed to be IND-CCA and C2PRI. For completeness, we also demonstrate that one can remain conceptually close to QSF for combining two KEMs. That is, by additionally passing in the encapsulation of KEM_1 , we show the resulting (combiner) KEM is IND-CCA-secure whenever either (1) KEM_0 is IND-CCA-secure or (2) KEM_0 satisfies C2PRI and KEM_1 satisfies OW-PCVA, a one-way security notion slightly weaker than IND-CCA.⁹

Beyond IND-CCA, we investigate the binding properties of QSF and QSI. As mentioned before, a combiner does not necessarily satisfy or preserve any binding properties—indeed, it may even fail to retain those that *are* satisfied by its components. For QSI, we demonstrate that it preserves any binding properties held by its constituent KEMs. However, the “nature” of this preservation depends on the specific property: in some cases, QSI satisfies the property if *at least one* of its constituent KEMs does (we refer to this as *existential* preservation) while in other cases, it requires *both* constituent KEMs to satisfy the property (we refer to this as *universal* preservation). For QSF, the analysis yields more diverse results. Depending on the property, QSF may (1) inherently satisfy the property, i.e., without relying on any properties of its constituents; (2) preserve the property of its sole constituent KEM; or (3) fail to satisfy the property altogether. This somewhat stark difference with QSI primarily stems from the fact that QSF incorporates all artifacts from its constituent NIKE into final key derivation, which effectively removes any dependency on binding-like properties of the NIKE, simplifying parts of the analysis and leading to different results.

Furthermore, we examine the general applicability of QSF and QSI. For QSF, the authors have shown that the NIKE component can be instantiated using any nominal group, immediately covering all relevant elliptic-curve Diffie-Hellman constructions (see Remark 21). Therefore, our focus primarily shifts to analyzing when a KEM achieves C2PRI. Since nearly all post-quantum KEMs utilize (a variant of the) FO transform [FO13, HHK17], we discuss the conditions under which FO-based KEMs satisfy C2PRI. This analysis proved to be somewhat challenging, as almost no two schemes employ the same variant of FO. Ultimately, we show that C2PRI holds for all variants of the FO transform originally discussed in [HHK17], their extensions with key confirmation [BP18], and the more recently introduced salted versions [ABD⁺23, GHS25]. The most common variants of FO employ a mechanism called *implicit rejection*, which essentially means that decapsulation rejects ciphertexts by returning a pseudo-random value (rather than an explicit failure symbol). For these variants, we additionally show that C2PRI is achieved regardless of whether the same function is used to compute both the session key and the rejection value.

Lastly, we apply these results to all post-quantum KEM currently considered for standardization—including ML-KEM-1024, HQC, (e)FrodoKEM, Classic McEliece, NTRU Prime, NTRU-HPS, and NTRU-HRSS—demonstrating that any of them can be used with QSF and QSI to construct a PQ/T hybrid KEM.

⁷ Technically, the hash function property required for C2PRI is different than the one needed by QSI; however, they are comparable in “strength”.

⁸ Additionally, if constructive redundancy for the hash is desired, *hash combiners* can provide this for different properties (c.f. [Her05, FLP14]).

⁹ OW-PCVA is essentially an abstraction of the strong Diffie-Hellman assumption for KEMs.

CONCURRENT WORK. After a preprint of this work appeared, two independent and concurrent works [ABK25, KSW25] were published, each reproducing parts of our result. In [ABK25], the authors analyze the construction we introduce as QSI and prove the same bound. They also study the C2PRI property for several FO-based KEMs. Notably, their proofs differ considerably from ours, but the results are nearly identical, with their bound being slightly less tight having an additional square-root over the entire expression. This difference arises from the distinct techniques used to bound the advantage of quantum adversaries. Nevertheless, both results yield the same bit security. While the authors do not address binding properties or provide exact bounds for the C2PRI of various KEMs, they do show that the QSI approach generalizes to more than two KEMs and discuss alternative instantiations of the function used for the final key derivation, beyond hash functions modeled as random oracles.

In [KSW25], the authors analyze the binding properties of combiners for two constituent KEMs using a GHP-like framework. That is, the construction they analyze constructs its public keys, secret keys, and encapsulations by concatenating those of the constituents, but derives its shared key by applying a (generic) function to the constituents’ shared keys and, optionally, public keys and encapsulation. Different instantiations of this function then correspond to the concrete combiners discussed above. If we instantiate their construction as to match QSI, their binding results are nearly identical to ours, though sometimes slightly less precise due to the employed approach (but this difference is minimal). They also provide an alternative bound for a specific encapsulation binding property, based on different binding properties from the constituent KEMs, which we do not. Finally, while we model the key derivation function as a random oracle to obtain concrete collision bounds, they give an exposition in the standard via (regular) collision resistance. Nevertheless this distinction is largely a matter of presentation, since both could be reformulated similarly to the other.

2 Preliminaries

Before proceeding, we review the relevant concepts.

2.1 (Keyed) Hash Functions

For the purposes of this work, a hash function is a function $H : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ where $\mathcal{X}$ and $\mathcal{Y}$ are referred to as input (or message) space and output (or digest) space, respectively. A keyed hash function (KHF), then, simply adds an explicit key space $\mathcal{K}$ to the domain, giving a function $KH : \mathcal{K} \times \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$.

Throughout, the security analyses typically model any *unkeyed* hash functions as (quantum) random oracles—i.e., idealized random functions that are accessible by all entities (in a proof) in a black-box manner—and hence do not directly consider any standard model properties of such functions. For KHFs, however, the analyses occasionally use the *split-key pseudo-random function family* (skPRF) property, which is a standard model property introduced in [GHP18]. This is a variant of the *pseudo-random function family* (PRF) property where the key space of the KHF is essentially split into multiple spaces (or interpreted as such). Consequently, with n split-key spaces, the domain of such a function would more accurately be represented by $\mathcal{K}_1 \times \cdots \times \mathcal{K}_n \times \mathcal{X}$, rather than $\mathcal{K} \times \mathcal{X}$. Intuitively, a KHF is a PRF if the input-output behavior of an unknown, randomly selected hash function from the family defined by the KHF is computationally indistinguishable from the input-output behavior of an actual random function (with the same domain and codomain). Formally, the random selection of the hash function is done by sampling a key from the key space and using it to index the KHF. However, conceptually, for a split-key KHF, all keys from the split-key domains serve to select the hash function. A split-key KHF is an skPRF, if it is a PRF (“behaves like a random function”) when *at least one* of the split-keys used to select the hash function is sampled (uniformly) at random; the other split-keys may be arbitrarily selected, even by an adversary. As is

customary, we formalize this property via a security game and a corresponding advantage definition, provided below. This definition closely follows the original one introduced in [GHP18, Figure 5].

Definition 1 (KHF skPRF). *Given a (split-key) KHF $\text{KH} : \mathcal{K}_1 \times \dots \times \mathcal{K}_n \times \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ and an adversary $\mathcal{A}$ playing in the skPRF game (as defined in Fig. 1), the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ is defined as*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KH}}^{\text{skPRF}}(\mathcal{A}) := \max_i (|\Pr[\text{skPRF}_{\text{KH}}(\mathcal{A}, 0, i) = 1] - \Pr[\text{skPRF}_{\text{KH}}(\mathcal{A}, 1, i) = 1]|) .$$

Game $\text{skPRF}_{\text{KH}}(\mathcal{A}, b, i)$:	$\text{O}_{\text{KH}}(k_1, \dots, k_{i-1}, k_{i+1}, \dots, k_n, x)$:
01 $X \leftarrow \emptyset$	05 if $x \in X$
02 $k_i \leftarrow_{\$} \mathcal{K}_i$	06 return $\perp$
03 $b' \leftarrow \mathcal{A}^{\text{O}_{\text{KH}}}()$	07 $X \leftarrow X \cup \{x\}$
04 return b'	08 $y_0 \leftarrow \text{KH}(k_1, \dots, k_{i-1}, k_i, k_{i+1}, \dots, k_n, x)$
	09 $y_1 \leftarrow_{\$} \mathcal{Y}$
	10 return y_b

Fig. 1: skPRF game for split-key KHF $\text{KH} : \mathcal{K}_1 \times \dots \times \mathcal{K}_n \times \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$.

Remark 2. [GHP18, Section 4] gives several constructions of skPRFs. In particular, the construction via concatenation $\| : \mathcal{K}_1 \times \dots \times \mathcal{K}_n \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ and a (single-)keyed hash function $\text{KH}' : \mathcal{K} \times \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ —that is, $\text{KH}(k_1, \dots, k_n, x) := \text{KH}'(\|k_1\| \dots \|k_n, x)$ —is extremely common in practice. Modeling KH' as a random oracle, [GHP18, Lemma 6 and Example 3] shows that, for this construction,

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KH}}^{\text{skPRF}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{q_{\text{KH}'}}{|\mathcal{K}|} ,$$

for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against skPRF of KH , issuing at most $q_{\text{KH}'}$ queries to KH' and q_e queries to O_{KH} .

Further, for the hash functions modeled as a random oracle, the security analyses implicitly rely on the collision resistance (CR), one-wayness (OW), and (generalized) second-preimage resistance (GSPR). Although these are regular (i.e., standard model) properties for hash functions, we merely consider them whenever the hash function is modeled as a random oracle. In this setting, the properties have well-known statistical bounds; we briefly summarize these below, after providing (compact) definitions for the standard model properties.

Definition 3 (Collision Resistance (CR)). *Given a hash function $\text{H} : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ and an adversary $\mathcal{A}$, the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ against the collision resistance of H is defined as*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{H}}^{\text{CR}}(\mathcal{A}) := \Pr[\text{H}(x) = \text{H}(x') \mid (x, x') \leftarrow \mathcal{A}()] .$$

Definition 4 (One-Wayness (OW)). *Given a hash function $\text{H} : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ and an adversary $\mathcal{A}$, the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ against the one-wayness of H is defined as*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{H}}^{\text{OW}}(\mathcal{A}) := \Pr[\text{H}(x) = y \mid y \leftarrow_{\$} \mathcal{Y}; x \leftarrow \mathcal{A}(y)] .$$

Definition 5 (Generalized Second-Preimage Resistance (GSPR)). *Given a hash function $\text{H} : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$, a “challenge” set $\mathcal{C} \subseteq \mathcal{X}$, and an adversary $\mathcal{A}$, the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ against the generalized second-preimage resistance of H is defined as*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{H}, \mathcal{C}}^{\text{GSPR}}(\mathcal{A}) := \Pr[\text{H}(x) = \text{H}(x') \wedge x \neq x' \mid x \leftarrow_{\$} \mathcal{C}; x' \leftarrow \mathcal{A}(x)] .$$

The following lemmas state concrete bounds on each of the above-defined properties whenever the hash function is modeled as a random oracle. As these are well-known results, or direct corollaries thereof, we provide them without proof here; for completeness, we sketch the proofs and refer to the relevant literature in the appendix (Section A).

Lemma 6. *Let $H : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ be a random oracle. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against CR of H , issuing at most q_H classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_H^{\text{CR}}(\mathcal{A}) = \frac{q_H^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{Y}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds

$$\text{Adv}_H^{\text{CR}}(\mathcal{A}) = \frac{q_H^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{Y}|}.$$

Lemma 7. *Let $H : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ be a random oracle. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against OW of H , issuing at most q_H classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_H^{\text{OW}}(\mathcal{A}) = \frac{q_H + 1}{|\mathcal{Y}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds

$$\text{Adv}_H^{\text{OW}}(\mathcal{A}) = \frac{8(2q_H + 1)^2}{|\mathcal{Y}|}.$$

Lemma 8. *Let $H : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{Y}$ be a random oracle and $\emptyset \neq \mathcal{C} \subseteq \mathcal{X}$ a “challenge” set. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against GSPR of H , issuing at most q_H classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_H^{\text{GSPR}}(\mathcal{A}) = \frac{q_H + 1}{|\mathcal{Y}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds

$$\text{Adv}_H^{\text{GSPR}}(\mathcal{A}) = \frac{8(2q_H + 1)^2}{|\mathcal{Y}|}.$$

2.2 Public-Key Encryption

Central to the constructions considered in this work are PKE schemes; we provide the formal definition below.

Definition 9 (Public-Key Encryption Scheme). *A public-key encryption scheme is a triple of algorithms (KeyGen, Enc, Dec) defined with respect to public-key space $\mathcal{PK}$, secret-key space $\mathcal{SK}$, message (plaintext) space $\mathcal{M}$, ciphertext space $\mathcal{C}$, and randomness space $\mathcal{R}$. More precisely, the triple of algorithms is defined as follows.*

- **KeyGen()** : $(\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \in \mathcal{PK} \times \mathcal{SK}$. Probabilistic algorithm that takes no inputs and outputs a public key and a secret key (“key pair”).
- **Enc**($\text{pk} \in \mathcal{PK}, m \in \mathcal{M}$) : $c \in \mathcal{C}$. Probabilistic algorithm that, given a public key pk and message m , produces an encryption (ciphertext) c of m under pk . We may explicitly specify the randomness used in encryption by writing $\text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m; r)$, where $r \in \mathcal{R}$.

- $\text{Dec}(c \in \mathcal{C}, \text{sk} \in \mathcal{SK}) : m \in \mathcal{M} \cup \{\perp\}$. Deterministic algorithm that, given a secret key sk and ciphertext c , yields either a message $m \in \mathcal{M}$ or an explicit failure symbol $\perp \notin \mathcal{M}$, the latter indicating that c is not a valid ciphertext (under sk).

A PKE scheme property we use in this work is *rigidity*, initially introduced by Bernstein and Persichetti in [BP18]. Unlike most properties, rigidity refers specifically to deterministic PKE schemes; that is, PKE schemes where Enc is deterministic. Intuitively, a deterministic PKE scheme is *rigid* if Enc is the left-inverse to Dec , i.e., if decrypting and then re-encrypting always yields the original ciphertext. The formal definition is provided below, which also includes the notion of rigidity for a specific ciphertext under a given key pair.

Definition 10 (PKE Rigidity [BP18]). A deterministic PKE scheme $\text{dPKE} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Enc}, \text{Dec})$ is rigid iff for any key pair (pk, sk) generated by KeyGen and any ciphertext $c \in \mathcal{C}$,

$$\text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c) = \perp \quad \text{or} \quad \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c)) = c .$$

For a given key pair (pk, sk) generated by KeyGen , a ciphertext c is non-rigid under (pk, sk) iff

$$\text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c) \neq \perp \quad \text{and} \quad \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c)) \neq c .$$

2.3 Key Encapsulation Mechanisms

Closely related to the notion of a PKE scheme is that of a KEM. Indeed, many KEM constructions build atop PKE schemes, including several considered in this work. The formal definition is provided below, where we reuse the notation and naming conventions established for PKE schemes when appropriate, for consistency.

Definition 11 (Key Encapsulation Mechanism). A key encapsulation mechanism is a triple of algorithms $(\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$ defined with respect to public-key space $\mathcal{PK}$, secret-key space $\mathcal{SK}$, (shared) key space $\mathcal{K}$, encapsulation/ciphertext space $\mathcal{C}$, and randomness space $\mathcal{R}$. More precisely, the triple of algorithms is defined as follows.

- $\text{KeyGen}() : (\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \in \mathcal{PK} \times \mathcal{SK}$. Probabilistic algorithm that takes no inputs and outputs a public key and a secret key (“key pair”).
- $\text{Encap}(\text{pk} \in \mathcal{PK}) : (k, c) \in \mathcal{K} \times \mathcal{C}$. Probabilistic algorithm that, given a public key pk , produces a key k and a corresponding encapsulation (or ciphertext) c under pk . We may explicitly specify the randomness used in encapsulation by writing $\text{Encap}(\text{pk}; r)$, where $r \in \mathcal{R}$.
- $\text{Decap}(c \in \mathcal{C}, \text{sk} \in \mathcal{SK}) : k \in \mathcal{K} \cup \{\perp\}$. Deterministic algorithm that, given a secret key sk and ciphertext c , yields either a $k \in \mathcal{K}$ or an explicit failure symbol $\perp \notin \mathcal{K}$, the latter indicating that c is not a valid encapsulation (under sk).

KEMs, like PKE schemes, typically satisfy a perfect correctness condition: Assuming proper inputs, decapsulation invariably recovers the original (shared) key. However, many post-quantum KEMs (including many FO-based ones) do not satisfy this property. Instead, they permit a small probability of a decapsulation failure, even for honestly generated encapsulations. As such, we consider the looser δ -correctness notion given below, taken from [HHK17].

Definition 12 (KEM δ -correctness [HHK17]). A KEM $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$ is δ -correct if

$$\Pr[\text{Decap}(\text{sk}, c) \neq k \mid (\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}(); (k, c) \leftarrow \text{Encap}(\text{pk})] \leq \delta .$$

Beyond correctness, we adopt the standard security notion for KEMs, *indistinguishability under chosen-ciphertext attacks* (IND-CCA), jointly formalized by the game and advantage definition provided in Fig. 2 and Definition 13, respectively.

Definition 13 (KEM IND-CCA). *Given a KEM $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$ and an adversary $\mathcal{A}$ playing in the IND-CCA game (as defined in Fig. 2), the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ is defined as*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{A}) := |\Pr[\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 0) = 1] - \Pr[\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 1) = 1]| .$$

Game $\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, b)$:	$\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}(c)$:
01 $(\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}()$	07 if $c = c^*$
02 $(k^*, c^*) \leftarrow \text{Encap}(\text{pk})$	08 return $\perp$
03 if b	09 $k \leftarrow \text{Decap}(\text{sk}, c)$
04 $k^* \leftarrow \mathcal{K}$	10 return k
05 $b' \leftarrow \mathcal{A}^{\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}}(\text{pk}, c^*, k^*)$	
06 return b'	

Fig. 2: IND-CCA game for KEM $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$.

Further, we use a less conventional security property called *ciphertext second-preimage resistance* (C2PRI), introduced in [BCD⁺24] for the IND-CCA analysis of the hybrid KEM X-Wing. Intuitively, C2PRI denotes the difficulty of finding an encapsulation that decapsulates to the same key as a *different* honestly generated encapsulation, even when the secret decapsulation key is *fully* exposed—effectively nullifying any conventional KEM security guarantees such as IND-CCA. The rationale for this powerful adversarial model is the presumed scenario in which the notion is used: a completely insecure KEM (in the sense of IND-CCA). Indeed, providing the secret decapsulation key to the adversary is a way to model this scenario. Formally, we define C2PRI through the game given in Fig. 3, together with the advantage provided below.

Definition 14 (KEM C2PRI [BCD⁺24]). *Given a KEM $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$ and an adversary $\mathcal{A}$ playing in the C2PRI game (as defined in Fig. 3), the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ is defined as*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) := \Pr[\text{C2PRI}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1] .$$

Game $\text{C2PRI}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A})$:
01 $(\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}()$
02 $(k, c) \leftarrow \text{Encap}(\text{pk})$
03 $c' \leftarrow \mathcal{A}(\text{sk}, \text{pk}, k, c)$
04 return $\text{Decap}(\text{sk}, c') = k \wedge c' \neq c$

Fig. 3: C2PRI game for KEM $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$.

Lastly, we consider a range of so-called *binding properties*, put forward by Cremers et al. in [CDM24]. These properties primarily serve to prevent attack scenarios arising in protocols that traditional properties like IND-CCA do not cover. Loosely speaking, a binding property captures the extent to which certain KEM artifacts determine other ones. Here, the considered artifacts are the ones meant to be known by both parties in a KEM interaction: the public key, the encapsulation/ciphertext, and the shared key. For example, if the shared key *binds* the encapsulation, a particular value for this key “sufficiently limits” the set of encapsulations that can lead to a successful KEM interaction—i.e., without decapsulation explicitly failing. Phrased differently, if the shared key *binds* the encapsulation, it is difficult to find two *different* encapsulations that *both* successfully decapsulate to the *same* shared key. For ease of reference, when discussing whether (a set of artifacts) P binds (another set of artifacts) Q , we refer to elements in P and Q as *binding sources* and *binding targets*, respectively. Indeed, there may be more than one binding source/target. Disregarding the binding properties that (1) have overlap in their binding sources and targets, (2) have the public key as sole binding source, or (3) have multiple binding targets,¹⁰ the distinct combinations already give rise to seven binding properties. In addition, however, Cremers et al. introduced three adversarial models: honest (HON), leaking (LEAK), and malicious (MAL). In HON, the adversary gets access to a decapsulation oracle, akin to IND-CCA; in LEAK, the adversary gets access to the secret decapsulation keys, rendering the decapsulation oracle unnecessary; in MAL, the adversary gets to provide the secret decapsulation keys itself. In total, this leads to 21 distinct binding properties; we denote these by X-BIND-P-Q where $X \in \{\text{HON}, \text{LEAK}, \text{MAL}\}$ and $P, Q \subset \{\text{PK}, \text{C}, \text{K}\}$ (such that $P \cap Q = \emptyset$). Here, PK, C, and K respectively signify public key, encapsulation/ciphertext, and shared key.

Perhaps unsurprisingly, the formal definitions of these binding properties are quite alike. As such, instead of providing dedicated definitions for each of them, we provide two slightly more generic definitions, closely following the original work [CDM24]. The first of these, covering the HON and LEAK models, is given below; the second of these, covering the MAL model, is deferred to the appendix (Definition 40). For notational convenience, we let $\text{PK} := \{\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1\}$, $\text{C} := \{c_0, c_1\}$, and $\text{K} := \{k_0, k_1\}$.

Definition 15 (KEM Binding (HON and LEAK) [CDM24]). *Let $X \in \{\text{HON}, \text{LEAK}\}$ and $P, Q \subset \{\text{PK}, \text{C}, \text{K}\}$ such that $P \cap Q = \emptyset$, where $\text{PK} := \{\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1\}$, $\text{C} := \{c_0, c_1\}$, and $\text{K} := \{k_0, k_1\}$. Further, define “binding break” predicate*

$$\begin{aligned} \text{BB}_{P,Q} : \mathcal{PK} \times \mathcal{PK} \times \mathcal{C} \times \mathcal{C} \times \mathcal{K} \times \mathcal{K} &\rightarrow \{\text{true}, \text{false}\} \\ \text{BB}_{P,Q}(\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1, c_0, c_1, k_0, k_1) &:= k_0 \neq \perp \wedge k_1 \neq \perp \wedge \forall_{p \in P} : p_0 = p_1 \wedge \exists_{q \in Q} : q_0 \neq q_1, \end{aligned}$$

where p_b (resp. q_b) refers to the respective element in the set p (resp. q); e.g., if $p = \text{PK}$, p_0 denotes pk_0 . Then, given a KEM $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$ and an adversary $\mathcal{A} = (\mathcal{A}_1, \mathcal{A}_2)$ playing in the X-BIND-P-Q game (as defined in Fig. 4), the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ is defined as

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{X-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) := \Pr[\text{X-BIND-P-Q}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1].$$

Finally, although X-BIND-CT,PK-K is technically among the security properties defined above, it is essentially just a mere “sanity check” for the considered KEM, as already noted by Cremers

¹⁰ Certainly, an artifact trivially binds itself: It always uniquely determines its own value. Further, since a KEM’s public key is meant to be reused and produce different encapsulation/key pairs, the public key as sole binding source would be nonsensical. Lastly, a binding property with multiple targets corresponds to the conjunction of the properties with single targets, e.g., satisfying a property with the public and shared key as binding targets is equivalent to satisfying the property with (only) the public key as target and the property with (only) the shared key as target (with the same sources).

Game X-BIND-P-Q _{KEM} ($\mathcal{A}$):	DO _{Decap} (b', c):
01 $(pk_0, sk_0) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}()$	14 $k \leftarrow \text{Decap}(sk_{b'}, c)$
02 $(pk_1, sk_1) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}()$	15 return k
03 if $PK \in P$: $b \leftarrow 0$	
04 else if $PK \in Q$: $b \leftarrow 1$	
05 else : $b \leftarrow \mathcal{A}_1()$	
06 $(pk_1, sk_1) \leftarrow (pk_b, sk_b)$	
07 if $X = \text{HON}$	
08 $(c_0, c_1) \leftarrow \mathcal{A}_2^{\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}}(pk_0, pk_1)$	
09 else // $X = \text{LEAK}$	
10 $(c_0, c_1) \leftarrow \mathcal{A}_2(pk_0, sk_0, pk_1, sk_1)$	
11 $k_0 \leftarrow \text{Decap}(sk_0, c_0)$	
12 $k_1 \leftarrow \text{Decap}(sk_1, c_1)$	
13 return $\text{BB}_{P,Q}(pk_0, pk_1, c_0, c_1, k_0, k_1)$	

Fig. 4: X-BIND-P-Q game for $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$, $X \in \{\text{HON}, \text{LEAK}\}$, and $P, Q \subset \{PK, C, K\}$ such that $P \cap Q = \emptyset$.

et al. [CDM24]. Namely, in the corresponding game, the adversary is tasked with finding a *single* encapsulation c that decapsulates to two *different* shared keys $k_0 \neq k_1$ under a *single* decapsulation key sk . That is,

$$k_0 = \text{KEM.Decap}(sk, c) \neq \text{KEM.Decap}(sk, c) = k_1.$$

Since decapsulation is supposed to be deterministic *by definition*, this should be impossible (unless the KEM does not pass this “sanity check”). For this reason, we omit this property from our analyses throughout.

Remark 16. C2PRI is similar to LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT. However, C2PRI is a weaker assumption because it tasks the adversary with finding a “ciphertext second preimage” rather than the easier task of a “ciphertext collision”, which LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT requires.

2.4 Fujisaki-Okamoto Transformation

The FO transform—or, rather, the modular revision accompanied by a quantum-security analysis [HHK17]—constructs a KEM from a PKE scheme in a modular fashion. It does so by first applying the $\mathbf{T}$ transform to the given PKE scheme, resulting in a derandomized version, and subsequently subjecting this derandomized scheme to the $\mathbf{U}$ transform to produce the final KEM. In fact, the $\mathbf{U}$ transform has four main variants, leading to a total of four FO variants.

Loosely speaking, the $\mathbf{T}$ transform “generates randomness” from the given message via a hash function. Further, it adds a re-encryption step to decryption, failing if the message extracted from the ciphertext does not result in the same ciphertext when encrypted anew. The $\mathbf{U}$ transform produces a shared key and corresponding encapsulation by encrypting a randomly sampled message, subsequently passing it through a hash function. (Then, the hash digest and ciphertext serve as the key and encapsulation, respectively.) The variants of this transform differ along two dimensions, each allowing for two possible modulus operandi. The first dimension concerns the derivation of the key,

$\text{KeyGen}'()$:	$\text{Enc}'(\text{pk}, m)$:	$\text{Dec}'(\text{sk}' := (\text{pk}, \text{sk}), c)$:
01 $(\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}()$	04 $c \leftarrow \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m; \text{G}(m))$	06 $m \leftarrow \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c)$
02 $\text{sk}' \leftarrow (\text{pk}, \text{sk})$	05 return c	07 if $m = \perp$ or $c \neq \text{Enc}'(\text{pk}, m)$
03 return (pk, sk')		08 return $\perp$
		09 else
		10 return m

Fig. 5: T-transformed encryption scheme $\text{T}[\text{PKE}, \text{G}]$.

$\text{KeyGen}^\perp()$	$\text{Encap}(\text{pk})$
01 $(\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}()$	10 $m \leftarrow \mathcal{M}$
02 $\text{fk} \leftarrow \mathcal{K}_F$	11 $c \leftarrow \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m)$
03 $\text{sk}' \leftarrow (\text{sk}, \text{fk})$	12 $k \leftarrow \text{H}(m, c)$
04 return (pk, sk')	13 return (k, c)
$\text{Decap}^\perp(\text{sk}, c)$	$\text{Decap}^\perp(\text{sk}' := (\text{sk}, s), c)$
05 $m \leftarrow \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c)$	14 $m \leftarrow \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c)$
06 if $m = \perp$	15 if $m = \perp$
07 return $\perp$	16 return $k \leftarrow \text{F}(\text{fk}, c)$
08 else	17 else
09 return $k \leftarrow \text{H}(m, c)$	18 return $k \leftarrow \text{H}(m, c)$

Fig. 6: KEMs $\text{U}^\perp[\text{PKE}, \text{H}]$ ('explicit rejection') and $\text{U}^\perp[\text{PKE}, \text{H}, \text{F}]$ ('implicit rejection').

which may be done by passing either (1) only the message or (2) both the message and its encryption through the hash function. The second dimension concerns the response in case of a failure, which may be either (1) $\perp$ or (2) a pseudo-random value. Typically, for this second dimension, these are referred to as *explicit* and *implicit rejection*, respectively. The formal definitions of the transforms are provided below.

Definition 17 (T Transform). *Given a PKE scheme $\text{PKE} = (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Enc}, \text{Dec})$ and a hash function $\text{G} : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow \mathcal{R}$, the T transform constructs the PKE scheme*

$$\text{T}[\text{PKE}, \text{G}] := (\text{KeyGen}', \text{Enc}', \text{Dec}') ,$$

as defined in Fig. 5.

Remark 18. The T transform transforms any probabilistic PKE into a rigid deterministic PKE because re-encryption explicitly verifies the rigidity condition.

Definition 19 ($\text{U}^\perp$ and $\text{U}^\perp$ Transforms). *Given a PKE scheme $\text{PKE} = (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Enc}, \text{Dec})$ and hash functions $\text{H} : \mathcal{M} \times \mathcal{C} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ and $\text{F} : \mathcal{K}_F \times \mathcal{C} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$, the $\text{U}^\perp$ transform and $\text{U}^\perp$ transforms respectively construct the KEMs*

$$\begin{aligned} \text{U}^\perp[\text{PKE}, \text{H}] &:= (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap}^\perp) , \\ \text{U}^\perp[\text{PKE}, \text{H}, \text{F}] &:= (\text{KeyGen}^\perp, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap}^\perp) , \end{aligned}$$

as defined in Fig. 6.

<u>KeyGen^ℓ()</u>	<u>Encap_m(pk)</u>
01 (pk, sk) ← KeyGen	10 $m \leftarrow_s \mathcal{M}$
02 $fk \leftarrow_s \mathcal{K}_F$	11 $c \leftarrow \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m)$
03 $sk' \leftarrow (sk, fk)$	12 $k \leftarrow H(m)$
04 return (pk, sk')	13 return (k, c)
<u>Decap_m[⊥](sk, c)</u>	<u>Decap_m^ℓ(sk' := (sk, s), c)</u>
05 $m \leftarrow \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c)$	14 $m \leftarrow \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c)$
06 if $m = \perp$	15 if $m = \perp$
07 return $\perp$	16 return $k \leftarrow F(fk, c)$
08 else	17 else
09 return $k \leftarrow H(m)$	18 return $k \leftarrow H(m)$

Fig. 7: KEMs $U_m^\perp[\text{PKE}, H]$ (‘explicit rejection’) and $U_m^\ell[\text{PKE}, H, F]$ (‘implicit rejection’), counterparts to the transforms in Fig. 6 that derive the key from the message alone.

Definition 20 ($U_m^\perp$ and U_m^ℓ Transforms). *Given a PKE scheme $\text{PKE} = (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Enc}, \text{Dec})$ and hash functions $H : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ and $F : \mathcal{K}_F \times \mathcal{C} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$, the $U_m^\perp$ and U_m^ℓ transforms respectively construct the KEMs*

$$\begin{aligned} U_m^\perp[\text{PKE}, H] &:= (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}_m, \text{Decap}_m^\perp) , \\ U_m^\ell[\text{PKE}, H, F] &:= (\text{KeyGen}^\ell, \text{Encap}_m, \text{Decap}_m^\ell) , \end{aligned}$$

as defined in Fig. 7.

2.5 KEM Combiners, QSF, and X-Wing

Broadly speaking, KEM combiners are generic frameworks for constructing a single KEM from multiple constituent KEMs; the resulting KEM is supposed to be secure—typically in the sense of IND-CCA—if *at least one* of the input KEMs is secure. In many cases, such combiners directly preserve the security of their inputs—that is, the resulting KEM is at least as secure as any of its constituents. This property makes them especially attractive for building PQ/T hybrid KEMs: by combining a pre- and post-quantum KEM, classical security can be guaranteed even if the post-quantum component KEM turns out insecure. Moreover, it enables certification of post-quantum systems under guidelines that still require traditional algorithms.

In [GHP18], Giacon et al. conducted a detailed study of such KEM combiners, focusing on IND-CCA security. Later, with the goal of gaining both efficiency and (engineering) simplicity in the hybrid setting, Barbosa et al. proposed the QSF framework and, specifically, its instantiation X-Wing [BCD⁺24]. Unlike customary combiners, QSF takes a KEM and a *nominal group* as input. If the component KEM is (post-quantum) IND-CCA secure, then the resulting KEM is as well—even if the nominal group is completely insecure. Moreover, if the constituent KEM is only C2PRI secure but the nominal group satisfies the Strong Diffie-Hellman (SDH) assumption, then the resulting KEM is still (pre-quantum) IND-CCA secure. The X-Wing scheme instantiates QSF with ML-KEM-768 as the KEM and X25519 as the nominal group.

On a high level, QSF operates by executing the provided KEM and nominal group—say KEM and $\mathcal{N}$ —in parallel. For key generation, it generates key pairs using both KEM and $\mathcal{N}$, setting its own key pair to be the component-wise pair:

$$(\text{pk}_0, \text{sk}_0) \leftarrow \text{KEM.KeyGen}; (\text{pk}_1, \text{sk}_1) \leftarrow \mathcal{N}.\text{KeyGen}; (\text{pk}, \text{sk}) \leftarrow ((\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1), (\text{sk}_0, \text{sk}_1)) .$$

For encapsulation, it encapsulates using KEM, exponentiates the group generator and (the relevant part of) the public key by a freshly generated ephemeral secret using $\mathcal{N}$ —the resulting values respectively serve as “group-based encapsulation and shared secret”—deriving its own shared secret as the hash of the obtained shared secrets (along with the group-based public key, encapsulation, and an algorithm-specific label), and setting its own encapsulation to be the concatenation of the obtained encapsulations:¹¹

$$(k_0, c_0) \leftarrow \text{KEM.Encap}(\text{pk}_0); (k_1, c_1) \leftarrow (g^{\text{sk}_e}, \text{pk}_1^{\text{sk}_e}); (k, c) \leftarrow (\text{H}(k_0, k_1, c_1, \text{pk}_1, \text{algolabel}), (c_0, c_1)) .$$

For decapsulation, it decapsulates using KEM, exponentiates (the relevant part of) the encapsulation using $\mathcal{N}$, and derives the shared secret as in encapsulation:

$$k_0 \leftarrow \text{KEM.Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0); k_1 \leftarrow c_1^{\text{sk}_1}; k \leftarrow \text{H}(k_0, k_1, c_1, \text{pk}_1, \text{algolabel}) .$$

For completeness, we provide the formal definition of nominal groups and the full specification of QSF in Section B.

Remark 21. Prime-order groups, such as prime-order elliptic curves, are instances of nominal groups [ABH⁺21], as shown by Alwen, Blanchet, Hauck, Kiltz, Lipp, and Riepel. As such, under the SDH assumption, the curves `brainpoolP256`, `brainpoolP384`, and `brainpoolP512` [ML10], as well as NIST’s `P-256`, `P-384`, and `P-521` [oST23] can be used to instantiate QSF’s nominal group (as ECDH).

3 QSI: A KEM-Only Framework

As briefly mentioned before, the QSF framework—and particularly the instantiation as X-Wing (using ML-KEM-768 and X25519)—introduced in [BCD⁺24] achieves pre- and/or post-quantum security by combining a KEM and a nominal group: if the KEM is (post-quantum) IND-CCA secure, QSF is (post-quantum) IND-CCA secure regardless of the security of the nominal group; if the nominal group satisfies the SDH assumption and the KEM provides no security beyond C2PRI, then QSF is (pre-quantum) IND-CCA secure. In the ensuing, we look into combining *two arbitrary KEMs* instead, following ideas used in QSF to optimize combiner inputs. That is, we introduce a KEM-only variant of QSF, which we call Quantum Superiority Interceptor (QSI), and analyze its IND-CCA *and* binding security.

Conceptually, our framework is almost identical to QSF, merely replacing all nominal group operations by the appropriate KEM operations and deriving the final shared key in a (slightly) different manner. Specifically, while QSF includes (1) the shared key from its KEM and (2) the shared key, encapsulation/ciphertext, and public encapsulation key from the nominal group (and a fixed label), our framework only includes the shared keys from both KEMs (and a fixed label), thereby reducing the hashing workload. Usually, the public encapsulation key is included to ensure multi-user security. However, we argue this is unnecessary for QSI as it plausibly inherits such security from its constituent KEMs. The full specification of the framework is given in Fig. 8.

SECURITY RESULTS. We analyze the security of QSI, covering both IND-CCA (Section 3.1) and several binding properties (Section 3.2). For comparison, we include an analysis of the binding properties for QSF, which, to the best of our knowledge, has not been done before.

We show that QSI provides (pre- and/or post-quantum) IND-CCA security as long as one of the constituent KEMs is (pre- and/or post-quantum) IND-CCA and the other is (pre- and/or post-quantum) C2PRI secure. In other words, we demonstrate the IND-CCA security of QSI in multiple

¹¹ Here, g denotes the group generator and sk_e denotes the freshly generated ephemeral secret.

KeyGen()	Encap(pk := (pk ₀ , pk ₁))	Decap(sk := (sk ₀ , sk ₁), c := (c ₀ , c ₁))
01 (pk ₀ , sk ₀) ← KEM ₀ .KeyGen()	06 (k ₀ , c ₀) ← KEM ₀ .Encap(pk ₀)	11 k ₀ ← KEM ₀ .Decap(sk ₀ , c ₀)
02 (pk ₁ , sk ₁) ← KEM ₁ .KeyGen()	07 (k ₁ , c ₁) ← KEM ₁ .Encap(pk ₁)	12 k ₁ ← KEM ₁ .Decap(sk ₁ , c ₁)
03 pk ← (pk ₀ , pk ₁)	08 k ← H(k ₀ , k ₁ , algolabel)	13 if k ₀ = ⊥ or k ₁ = ⊥
04 sk ← (sk ₀ , sk ₁)	09 c ← (c ₀ , c ₁)	14 return ⊥
05 return (pk, sk)	10 return (k, c)	15 k ← H(k ₀ , k ₁ , algolabel)
		16 return k

Fig. 8: QSI[KEM₀, KEM₁, H].

scenarios, including the possibility of cryptographically relevant quantum computers becoming a reality—nullifying the IND-CCA security of pre-quantum KEMs—and the possibility of post-quantum cryptography being classically broken, such as by an attack, vulnerability, or implementation error—nullifying the IND-CCA security of post-quantum KEMs. More precisely, in the former scenario, where the pre-quantum constituent KEM provides (classical) IND-CCA security but the post-quantum constituent KEM may not offer any IND-CCA security at all, our result implies that QSI is (pre-quantum) IND-CCA secure when

1. the key-derivation function H is a split-key PRF;
2. the pre-quantum KEM provides IND-CCA security; and
3. the post-quantum KEM provides no security beyond C2PRI.¹²

In the latter scenario, where the post-quantum constituent KEM provides (post-quantum) IND-CCA security but the pre-quantum KEM may not offer any IND-CCA security at all, our result implies that QSI is (post-quantum) IND-CCA secure when

1. the key-derivation function H is a split-key PRF;
2. the pre-quantum KEM provides no security beyond C2PRI; and
3. the post-quantum KEM provides IND-CCA security.¹³

Notably, this result does *not* rely on the (Q)ROM: it is sufficient to assume the standard model skPRF property for the employed hash function H.

Further, we establish that *all considered variants* of the FO transform provide C2PRI security. Together with the IND-CCA guarantees of these transforms, this makes FO-based KEMs quite suitable as constituent KEMs for QSI.

We also briefly discuss a variant of QSI that uses the encapsulations of its (second) constituent KEM as input to the final key derivation, akin to QSF. We show that the variant is IND-CCA-secure (in the ROM) already if the second KEM satisfies OW-PCVA, a notion that is weaker than IND-CCA. In essence, OW-PCVA is an abstraction of SDH for KEMs. As such, a QROM analysis would not be particularly useful, and we only consider the (*classical*) ROM. However, because OW-PCVA-based results are not the main focus of this work, we defer this analysis to the appendix (Section C.1).

For both QSI and QSF, we establish results for all six considered (see Section 2.3) binding properties across the three models. Most of these are preservation results, capturing the sense in which the combiners preserve the binding properties of their constituent KEM(s). Here, for QSI, we consider different “kinds” of preservation, which differ in the requirements on the constituent KEMs; for QSF, there is no such distinction. Additionally, for QSF, we establish some standalone results, demonstrating that the combiner satisfies certain binding properties without relying on any

¹² This case would consider classical attackers for all properties.

¹³ This case would consider quantum attackers for all properties.

such property of its constituent KEM. Lastly, we show that QSF does *not* satisfy a small number of properties: HON-, LEAK-, and MAL-BIND-CT-K, as well as MAL-BIND-CT-PK.¹⁴ Broadly speaking, the differences in the results for QSF and QSI primarily arise due to the fact that (1) QSF uses all artifacts from its nominal group as inputs to the final key derivation, and (2) QSI consists of two KEMs, particularly meaning it has the possibility to rely on the binding properties of either (or both).

HASHING THE PUBLIC KEYS/ENCAPSULATIONS FOR MULTI-USER/CHALLENGE SECURITY? In practice, regular IND-CCA security might be deemed insufficient: KEMs are employed in applications with many users, each of which may use their KEM multiple times over, and so attackers could observe/store interactions over an extended period of time before exploiting the collected public keys and encapsulations. As such, it is desirable to guarantee IND-CCA-like security even in this scenario, which leads to a multi-user/challenge version of IND-CCA. For FO-based KEMs, a known approach for achieving multi-user security is to tie each challenge to its user by hashing the user’s public key into the challenge key [DHK⁺21]. Naturally, one might think that QSI can achieve multi-user security through the same adaptation, and possibly multi-challenge security by additionally hashing the encapsulations. This would mean changing the key derivation to

$$H(k_0, k_1, c_0, c_1, pk_0, pk_1, \text{algolabel}) ,$$

increasing the size of the hash input significantly. Fortunately, it seems that the additional hash inputs may be unnecessary: QSI inherently preserves the multi-user/challenge IND-CCA of its constituents. While multi-user/challenge security is not a central topic of this work, we provide a proof sketch for this claim in Section C.2.

HASHING THE PUBLIC KEYS/ENCAPSULATIONS FOR (BETTER) BINDING? As alluded to above, the results established for QSF do not rely on any binding-like properties of its nominal group. This primarily stems from QSF’s use of the nominal group’s public key and encapsulation as inputs to the key derivation, which hints at an underlying pattern: Passing the public key and/or encapsulation of a constituent KEM into the (final) key derivation removes the dependency on that KEM’s binding properties, at least for those with the shared key as binding source. Here, we assume the key derivation function is modeled as a random oracle, although a collision resistant hash function might also suffice. In essence, this is a variant of the post-processing remark made by Cremers et al. [CDM24], but for combiners like the ones considered here.

The intuition behind this pattern is relatively straightforward, and also emerges in the proofs for the binding properties of QSF. As an example, we briefly sketch this intuition for the case where the encapsulation is a binding target; analogous reasoning holds for the case where the public key is a binding target. First, notice that, to break a binding property with the shared key as source and the encapsulation as target, an attacker must find *different* encapsulations that decapsulate to the *same* shared key (for the resulting combiner KEM). Now, if the resulting combiner KEM produces the final shared keys via a key derivation function (modeled as a random oracle), we can bound the probability of deriving the same shared key with different inputs by a customary collision bound. This particularly means that, if the encapsulation of a constituent KEM is used as input to the derivation, this part of the overall encapsulations must be equal (unless a collision occurred). As a result, the possibility of a similar binding break for the constituent KEM (whose encapsulation is used in the key derivation) is excluded with the collision.

On the flip side of this pattern, however, is that it requires passing additional data into the final key derivation—especially for some of the post-quantum KEMs, this can be costly. As such, depending on the (relative) practicality of (1) instantiating the combiner with KEMs that satisfy

¹⁴ Contrarily, for QSI, we do obtain positive results for these properties.

the desired binding properties and (2) passing in the public key and/or encapsulation to the final key derivation, one approach might be preferred over the other, but this is context-dependent. Furthermore, when additionally hashing the public key of a constituent KEM, the combiner does *not* satisfy the binding property with the encapsulation as source and the shared key as target. Intuitively, this is because (1) if a single public key is considered, the property boils down to the “sanity check” discussed in Section 2.3, and (2) if independently generated public keys are considered, the inputs to the final key derivation are different as long as the public keys are, in turn meaning the outputs are different unless a collision occurs and, hence, the property is trivial to break. For more details, refer to the analysis of the LEAK-BIND-CT-K property for QSF below. So, in contexts where such binding is desired, this may be another consideration in determining whether to additionally hash the public key.

3.1 Security: IND-CCA

We start by examining the most conventional property, IND-CCA. Loosely speaking, our analysis demonstrates that QSI is IND-CCA secure if one of its constituent KEMs is IND-CCA secure, the other constituent KEM is C2PRI secure, and the employed hash function is an skPRF. This result is symmetric with regard to the constituent KEMs: it is irrelevant which KEM satisfies IND-CCA, as long as the other satisfies C2PRI. We capture both cases with the single theorem below.

Theorem 22 (QSI IND-CCA). *Let $b \in \{0, 1\}$, and let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs—with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$ —of which KEM_{1-b} is δ -correct. Further, let $\text{algolabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ be an algorithm-specific label, $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a (split-key) KHF, and $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against IND-CCA of KEM (as defined in Fig. 2), issuing at most $q_{\text{DO}} \geq 0$ queries to DO_{Decap} , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq 2 \cdot \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_b}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{B}) + 2 \cdot \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_{1-b}}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{C}) + 2 \cdot \text{Adv}_H^{\text{skPRF}}(\mathcal{D}) + 2\delta.$$

Here, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$, $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$, and $\mathcal{D} := \mathcal{D}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem. $\mathcal{C}$ issues at most q_{DO} queries to its decapsulation oracle, and $\mathcal{D}$ issues at most q_{DO} queries to its skPRF oracle.

The proof loosely follows previous KEM combiner proofs, specifically the ones for [GHP18, Thm. 1] and [BCD⁺24, Thm. 2], while integrating the C2PRI-related reasoning used in [BCD⁺24, Thm. 1] for QSF. Moreover, the proofs for the two cases—only differing in which constituent is considered for C2PRI and which for IND-CCA—are completely symmetrical. So, without loss of generality, we cover the case in which KEM_0 is considered for C2PRI and KEM_1 for IND-CCA.

On a high level, the proof proceeds as follows. First, to bound the IND-CCA advantage, we start from the game where the KEM challenge key is honest, meaning $k^* = H(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algolabel})$. Subsequently, we change this game until we arrive at the game in which the KEM challenge key k^* is random. To this end, we rely on the skPRF property of H to argue that $k^* = H(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algolabel})$ is indistinguishable from random. Before we can apply such a reasoning step, however, at least one (split-)key should be uniformly random. For this purpose, we randomize k_1^* , based on the IND-CCA property of KEM_1 . (Here, our approach works up to correctness errors, each of which occurs with probability δ .) Further, to use the skPRF property, we additionally need to ensure that the value $H(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algolabel})$ is never given to $\mathcal{A}$ (as the result of a decapsulation query)—otherwise, the replacement would be noticeable. This could happen if there were other KEM_0 encapsulations that decapsulate to k_0^* —this is where C2PRI comes into play. Lastly, the factors (of 2) arise because we must undo the changes we made to replace the honestly computed k^* with a random one—with these changes still present, we do not yet end up with the proper IND-CCA game for the random key

Table 1: Outline of games used in the proof of Theorem 22.

Game	k^*	k_0^*	k_1^*	$\text{Decap}_0(\text{sk}_0, -)$	$\text{Decap}(\text{sk}, -\ c_1^*)$	Δ
G_0	real	real	real	usual	usual	$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{C2PRI}}()$
G_1	real	real	real	C2PRI abort	usual	$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{IND-CCA}}()$
G_2	real	real	random	C2PRI abort	usual	$\text{Adv}_{\text{H}}^{\text{skPRF}}()$
G_3	random	real	random	C2PRI abort	random	$\text{Adv}_{\text{H}}^{\text{skPRF}}()$
G_4	random	real	random	C2PRI abort	usual	$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{IND-CCA}}()$
G_5	random	real	real	C2PRI abort	usual	$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{C2PRI}}()$
G_6	random	real	real	usual	usual	

case. (Some decapsulation queries are not yet answered correctly.) Undoing the changes finishes our reasoning. The following proof formalizes this high-level overview.

Proof. We prove the statement via a sequence of games, starting with the original $\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 0)$ (i.e., the IND-CCA game for KEM with a honestly computed challenge key) as G_0 .

$$\Pr[\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 0) = 1] = \Pr[G_0(\mathcal{A}) = 1] .$$

Game G_1 . We first change the game such that it aborts whenever the challenge key, $k^* = \text{H}(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algolabel})$, could be given to $\mathcal{A}$ through a permitted decapsulation query; concretely, G_1 aborts if $\mathcal{A}$ ever queries the decapsulation oracle on an encapsulation (c_0, c_1^*) such that $c_0 \neq c_0^*$, yet $\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0) = \text{Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0^*) = k_0^*$. Thus, the game only differs if $\mathcal{A}$ performs a successful C2PRI attack on KEM_0 . We turn this into a successful C2PRI reduction $\mathcal{B}_1$. Since C2PRI attackers on KEM_0 get the secret key used by KEM_0 and can generate the key pair for KEM_1 on their own, $\mathcal{B}_1$ can perfectly simulate the decapsulation oracle and immediately recognize and output any C2PRI break (c_0) that might appear in $\mathcal{A}$'s decapsulation queries. Hence, we can bound the difference in success probability between G_0 and G_1 as

$$|\Pr[G_0(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_1(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{B}_1) .$$

Game G_2 . In G_2 , we replace the shared key of KEM_1 , k_1^* , with a uniformly random value. To bound the change in success probability, we construct a first IND-CCA adversary $\mathcal{C}_1$ against KEM_1 that simulates the entire game and outputs $\mathcal{A}$'s guess. $\mathcal{C}_1$ generates its own KEM_0 keypair and uses its KEM_1 decapsulation oracle to simulate all decapsulation queries, except when the KEM_1 encapsulation equals the challenge c_1^* , which yields nothing useful ($\perp$) when queried. In that case, it uses the received challenge key k_1^* to simulate the response. This simulation is perfect unless c_1^* fails to decapsulate to k_1^* , which happens with probability at most δ , the correctness error of KEM_1 .

Since $\mathcal{C}_1$ perfectly simulates G_2 if it was given a uniformly random shared key k_1^* , and perfectly simulates G_1 if it was given an honestly encapsulated shared key k_1^* (up to a correctness error), we obtain

$$|\Pr[G_1(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_2(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{C}_1) + \delta .$$

Games $G_0 - G_2$:	$\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}(c := (c_0, c_1))$:
01 $(\text{pk}_0, \text{sk}_0) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{KeyGen}()$	09 if $c = c^*$
02 $(\text{pk}_1, \text{sk}_1) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{KeyGen}()$	10 return $\perp$
03 $(k_0^*, c_0^*) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{Encap}(\text{pk}_0)$	11 $k_0 \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0)$
04 $(k_1^*, c_1^*) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{Encap}(\text{pk}_1)$	12 $k_1 \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_1, c_1)$
05 $k_1^* \leftarrow \mathcal{K}_1$ // G_2	13 if $k_0 = \perp$ or $k_1 = \perp$
06 $k^* \leftarrow \text{H}(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algolabel})$	14 return $\perp$
07 $b' \leftarrow \mathcal{A}^{\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}}((\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1), (c_0^*, c_1^*), k^*)$	15 if $c_0 \neq c_0^*$ and $k_0 = k_0^*$ and $c_1 = c_1^*$ // $G_1 - G_2$
08 return b'	16 abort // $G_1 - G_2$
	17 if $c_1 = c_1^*$ // G_2
	18 $k_1 \leftarrow k_1^*$ // G_2
	19 $k \leftarrow \text{H}(k_0, k_1, \text{algolabel})$
	20 return k

Fig. 9: Games $G_0 - G_2$ for the proof of Theorem 22.

Games $G_2 - G_5$:	$\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}(c := (c_0, c_1))$:
01 $(\text{pk}_0, \text{sk}_0) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{KeyGen}()$	10 if $c = c^*$
02 $(\text{pk}_1, \text{sk}_1) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{KeyGen}()$	11 return $\perp$
03 $(k_0^*, c_0^*) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{Encap}(\text{pk}_0)$	12 $k_0 \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0)$
04 $(k_1^*, c_1^*) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{Encap}(\text{pk}_1)$	13 $k_1 \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_1, c_1)$
05 $k_1^* \leftarrow \mathcal{K}_1$ // G_2, G_4	14 if $k_0 = \perp$ or $k_1 = \perp$
06 $k^* \leftarrow \text{H}(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algolabel})$ // G_2	15 return $\perp$
07 $k^* \leftarrow \mathcal{K}$ // $G_3 - G_5$	16 if $c_0 \neq c_0^*$ and $k_0 = k_0^*$ and $c_1 = c_1^*$
08 $b' \leftarrow \mathcal{A}^{\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}}((\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1), (c_0^*, c_1^*), k^*)$	17 abort
09 return b'	18 if $c_1 = c_1^*$ // G_2, G_4
	19 $k_1 \leftarrow k_1^*$ // G_2, G_4
	20 $k \leftarrow \text{H}(k_0, k_1, \text{algolabel})$
	21 if $c_1 = c_1^*$ // G_3
	22 $k \leftarrow \mathcal{K}$ // G_3
	23 return k

Fig. 10: Games $G_2 - G_5$ for the proof of Theorem 22.

Game G_3 . We now change the game such that all shared keys for KEM are replaced with random values *if* they would have otherwise been computed using the shared key for KEM_1 , k_1^* . This includes the challenge shared key k^* , as well as shared keys computed during decapsulation whenever the KEM_1 part of the queried encapsulation is c_1^* . We can bound the difference between the two success probabilities using a first skPRF adversary $\mathcal{D}_1$ against H that simulates the game, computes the challenge shared key via a call to its skPRF oracle, and returns the game's output as its own bit. To simulate the decapsulation oracle, $\mathcal{D}_1$ generates key pairs for KEM_0 and KEM_1 , and uses them to handle all encapsulations *except* those where the KEM_1 part is c_1^* . For those, $\mathcal{D}_1$ decapsulates the other part, computing $k_0 := \text{Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0)$, and queries its skPRF oracle on the input $(k_0, \text{algolabel})$ to obtain the final shared key.

Since $\mathcal{D}_1$ perfectly simulates game G_2 if its skPRF oracle uses H , and perfectly simulates game G_3 if its skPRF oracle uses random values, it follows that

$$|\Pr[G_2(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_3(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{H}}^{\text{skPRF}}(\mathcal{D}_1) .$$

Game G_4 . We now keep the challenge secret k^* random, but undo the change of the decapsulation oracle that was made in game G_3 . That is, we change the game back such that the decapsulation oracle no longer uses random values if the KEM_1 part of the queried encapsulation is c_1^* . To bound the difference between the two success probabilities, we construct a second skPRF adversary $\mathcal{D}_2$ against $\mathbf{H}$ that behaves exactly like $\mathcal{D}_1$, except that it picks the challenge shared key k^* on its own, at random. We obtain

$$|\Pr[G_3(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_4(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \text{Adv}_{\mathbf{H}}^{\text{skPRF}}(\mathcal{D}_2) .$$

At this point, the game is almost identical to $\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 1)$, the game we wanted to end up with—except that (1) the KEM_1 shared key, k_1^* , is still replaced with uniformly random values, and (2) the game is still aborted when the honest shared key, $k^* = \mathbf{H}(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algotlabel})$, could be given to the attacker through a permitted decapsulation query. As such, we now undo these changes.

Game G_5 . We change the game by reverting k_1^* back to being the honest shared KEM_1 secret, and by dropping the usage of the challenge k_1^* when handling c_1^* (during decapsulation). To bound the difference between the two success probabilities, we construct a second IND-CCA adversary $\mathcal{C}_2$ against KEM_1 that simulates the game and returns the game's output as its own bit. To simulate the decapsulation oracle, $\mathcal{C}_2$ picks its own key pair for KEM_0 and uses its own decapsulation oracle to decapsulate the KEM_1 encapsulations. To handle c_1^* , $\mathcal{C}_2$ will use its own challenge shared key k^* .

To relate the reduction's distinguishing advantage to the difference between the two success probabilities, note that $\mathcal{C}_2$ perfectly emulates G_4 if it was given a uniformly random shared key k^* ; and $\mathcal{C}_2$ perfectly emulates G_5 if it was given an honestly encapsulated shared key k_1^* , unless the encapsulation c_1^* fails to decapsulate to k_1^* . Again, this happens with probability at most δ . As such, we get

$$|\Pr[G_4(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_5(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{C}_2) + \delta .$$

Games $G_5 - G_6$:	$\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}(c := (c_0, c_1))$:
01 $(\text{pk}_0, \text{sk}_0) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{KeyGen}()$	08 if $c = c^*$
02 $(\text{pk}_1, \text{sk}_1) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{KeyGen}()$	09 return $\perp$
03 $(k_0^*, c_0^*) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{Encap}(\text{pk}_0)$	10 $k_0 \leftarrow \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0)$
04 $(k_1^*, c_1^*) \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{Encap}(\text{pk}_1)$	11 $k_1 \leftarrow \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_1, c_1)$
05 $k^* \leftarrow_{\$} \mathcal{K}$	12 if $k_0 = \perp$ or $k_1 = \perp$
06 $b' \leftarrow \mathcal{A}^{\text{DO}_{\text{Decap}}}((\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1), (c_0^*, c_1^*), k^*)$	13 return $\perp$
07 return b'	14 if $c_0 \neq c_0^*$ and $k_0 = k_0^*$ and $c_1 = c_1^*$ // G_5
	15 abort // G_5
	16 $k \leftarrow \mathbf{H}(k_0, k_1, \text{algotlabel})$
	17 return k

Fig. 11: Games $G_5 - G_6$ for the proof of Theorem 22.

Game G_6 . As a final change, we undo the remaining deviation from $\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 1)$ —i.e., we remove the abort that happens whenever the honest shared key, $k^* = \mathbf{H}(k_0^*, k_1^*, \text{algotlabel})$, could be given to the attacker through a permitted decapsulation query (as described in G_1). With this, everything is exactly as in the case $\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 1)$, meaning that

$$\Pr[G_6(\mathcal{A}) = 1] = \Pr[\text{IND-CCA}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}, 1) = 1] .$$

Again, the game only differs from its predecessor if $\mathcal{A}$ performed a successful C2PRI attack on KEM_0 . We turn this into a successful C2PRI reduction $\mathcal{B}_2$. Since C2PRI attackers on KEM_0 get the secret key used by KEM_0 and can generate the key pair for KEM_1 on their own, $\mathcal{B}_2$ can perfectly simulate the decapsulation oracle and immediately recognize and output any C2PRI break (c_0) that might appear in $\mathcal{A}$'s decapsulation queries. From this, it follows that

$$|\Pr[G_5(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_6(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{B}_2) .$$

Finally, using the triangle inequality, we can derive

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq 2 \cdot \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{B}) + 2 \cdot \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{C}) \\ &\quad + 2 \cdot \text{Adv}_{\text{H}}^{\text{skPRF}}(\mathcal{D}) + 2\delta , \end{aligned}$$

where we folded $\mathcal{B}_1$ and $\mathcal{B}_2$ into a single C2PRI adversary $\mathcal{B}$, $\mathcal{C}_1$ and $\mathcal{C}_2$ into a single IND-CCA adversary $\mathcal{C}$, and $\mathcal{D}_1$ and $\mathcal{D}_2$ into a single skPRF adversary $\mathcal{D}$. $\square$

3.2 Security: Binding

Next, we analyze the binding properties of QSI and QSF, focusing mainly on the former, when instantiated with *generic* KEMs—the consequences of instantiating the frameworks with FO-based KEMs is covered afterward. Given the extensive range of binding properties, we present a selection here in the interest of space, deferring the rest to the appendix (Section D). Specifically, in this section, we examine all binding properties within the LEAK adversarial model. Since the analyses are somewhat similar across other models, this selection should be decently representative of the entire range while also (1) allowing for a concise exposition and (2) demonstrating results in a relatively strong model.

QSI. Loosely speaking, the results we establish for QSI differ along two dimensions. The first dimension concerns the use of a random oracle, and so whether the result is in the standard model or in the ROM. Whenever a result uses a random oracle, it does so purely to include a concrete bound for the probability of a collision. The second dimension concerns the *kind of preservation* QSI achieves for the considered property. Here, we distinguish between two kinds of preservation that we refer to as *existential* and *universal* preservation. For the former, QSI possesses a property if *at least one* constituent KEM possesses a property; for the latter, QSI possesses a property if *every* constituent KEM possesses a property. In essence, this means that QSI is at least as secure as its strongest constituent KEM for the properties it existentially preserves. Contrarily, for properties it universally preserves, QSI merely ensures it does not “undo” a property possessed by every constituent KEM. All obtained results hold in both the classical and quantum setting, though the bounds may vary slightly due to the distinct concrete collision probabilities of the random oracle used in each context. Table 2 provides a high-level overview of the results, including those in the HON and MAL models.

In total, there are six properties to go over:¹⁵ LEAK-BIND-K-PK, K,CT-PK, K-CT, K,PK-CT, CT-K, and CT-PK. The statements and proofs overlap considerably—in fact, some are merely special cases of others. As such, we cover several of them at once or cross-reference whenever appropriate.

Theorem 23 (QSI Universal Preservation of LEAK-BIND-K-CT and LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $\text{H} : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, \text{H}]$.*

¹⁵ Recall that we do not consider properties with the public key as *sole* binding source.

Table 2: High-level overview of established results on QSI’s binding properties. The *Result* column indicates how QSI satisfies the binding property in the *Property* column: $\checkmark^\forall$ denotes universal preservation; $\checkmark^\exists$ denotes existential preservation. The *Components* column lists the properties of each component that (indirectly) appear in the bound, excluding the preserved binding properties of constituent KEM(s). ϵ_{pk} denotes the probability of obtaining the same public key from two independent key generations. For existential preservation, we let KEM_b be the KEM for which the binding property is preserved.

	X-BIND ($X \in \{\text{HON}, \text{LEAK}\}$)				MAL-BIND	
	K-CT K,PK-CT	K-PK K,CT-PK	CT-K	CT-PK	K-CT; K,PK-CT K-PK; K,CT-PK	CT-K CT-PK
Result (QSI)	$\checkmark^\forall$	$\checkmark^\exists$	$\checkmark^\forall$	$\checkmark^\exists$	$\checkmark^\forall$	$\checkmark^\forall$
KEM_b	—	ϵ_{pk}	—	ϵ_{pk}	—	—
KEM_{1-b}	—	—	—	—	—	—
H	CR (RO)	CR (RO)	—	—	CR (RO)	—

Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}, \text{LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ classical queries to H , it holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{C}) + \frac{q_H^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{C}) + \frac{q_H^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

In both of the above, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ and $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem, with each issuing at most q_H queries to H .

Proof. For adversary $\mathcal{A}$ to succeed in the LEAK-BIND-K-CT game for KEM, it must provide two *different* encapsulations $c_0 := (c_{00}, c_{01}) \neq (c_{10}, c_{11}) =: c_1$ that decapsulate to the *same* shared keys $k_0 = k_1$ under decapsulation keys $\text{sk}_0 := (\text{sk}_{00}, \text{sk}_{01})$ and $\text{sk}_1 := (\text{sk}_{10}, \text{sk}_{11})$ that *may or may not* be equal (as $\mathcal{A}$ may decide itself whether to consider the same or independently generated key pairs). Indeed, in this game, the final $\text{BB}_{\text{P,Q}}$ predicate reduces to $k_0 = k_1 \neq \perp \wedge c_0 \neq c_1$. Per the decapsulation procedure of KEM, this means that

$$\begin{aligned} & H(\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{00}, c_{00}), \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{01}, c_{01}), \text{algotlabel}) \\ &= \\ & H(\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{10}, c_{10}), \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{11}, c_{11}), \text{algotlabel}). \end{aligned}$$

Now, if any of the inputs to H on the left-hand side is unequal to its counterpart on the right-hand side, this implies a collision for H . As H is modeled as a random oracle, the probability of such a collision occurring is bounded by a customary birthday bound in the number of issued queries, independent of the actual values. So, as a first step, we split the probability space based on an event D that captures the case where *any* corresponding inputs are unequal, and bound accordingly. That

is, in the classical setting, we get

$$\begin{aligned}
& \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}}(\mathcal{A}) \\
&= \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1] \\
&= \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D] + \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge D] \\
&\leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D] + \frac{q_{\text{H}}^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} ,
\end{aligned}$$

In the quantum setting, the derivation is identical, merely substituting the classical collision bound $\frac{q_{\text{H}}^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}$ with its quantum counterpart $\frac{q_{\text{H}}^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}$. In these collision bounds, the additional 1 in the numerator covers the case where the adversary returns encapsulations that lead to an unprecedented input for H (in the decapsulations performed by the game). Technically, these oracle invocations are not captured by q_{H} ; yet, they allow for a collision, enabling the adversary to succeed. Incrementing the numerator accounts for this.

It remains to bound the case where *both* corresponding inputs are equal (i.e., $\neg D$). To this end, observe that $c_{00} \neq c_{10} \vee c_{01} \neq c_{11}$ (because $c_0 \neq c_1$). As such, we split the probability space again, this time on the event $C := c_{00} \neq c_{10}$; note that, at this point, $\neg C$ implies $c_{01} \neq c_{11}$. That is,

$$\begin{aligned}
\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D] &= \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge C] \\
&\quad + \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge \neg C] .
\end{aligned}$$

Considering the former (where C holds), we simultaneously have $c_{00} \neq c_{10}$ and $\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{00}, \text{sk}_0) = \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{10}, \text{sk}_0)$. Indeed, since the LEAK-BIND-K-CT game for KEM encompasses the analogous game for KEM_0 —essentially executing it in parallel with that for KEM_1 —(c_0, c_1) constitute a LEAK-BIND-K-CT break for KEM_0 . Hence, we can construct an adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ against LEAK-BIND-K-CT for KEM_0 that, first, runs $\mathcal{A}_1$ and directly returns its output, indicating whether to consider the same or independently generated key pairs. Then, upon receiving the (potentially duplicated) key pairs from its own game, $\mathcal{B}$

1. uses KEM_1 to generate either one or two key pairs, depending on the choice previously made by $\mathcal{A}_1$;
2. combines the resulting key pairs with the ones it received from its own game, perfectly simulating the key pairs expected by $\mathcal{A}_2$; and
3. runs $\mathcal{A}_2$ on the final result.

Throughout, $\mathcal{B}$ directly forwards any queries $\mathcal{A}$ issues to H , trivially simulating this aspect of $\mathcal{A}$'s view. After $\mathcal{A}_2$ returns (c_0, c_1) , $\mathcal{B}$ extracts and returns (c_{00}, c_{10}) . Certainly, per the considered case, $\mathcal{B}$ succeeds in its own game and, hence,

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge C] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}_0}(\mathcal{B}) = 1] .$$

The other case (where $\neg C$ holds), is completely symmetrical, merely substituting any artifact from KEM_0 by the analogous one from KEM_1 . As a result, we can similarly construct an adversary $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ such that

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge \neg C] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}_1}(\mathcal{C}) = 1] .$$

By definition, the above probability statements involving $\mathcal{B}$ and $\mathcal{C}$ are the advantages on the right-hand side of the inequality in the theorem statement. Consequently, we obtain the desired bound by combining the individual steps.

For LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT, a simplified version of the proof applies. Here, the primary difference is that $\mathcal{A}$ *does not* get to decide whether to consider the same or independently generated key pairs (nor do $\mathcal{B}$ and $\mathcal{C}$); instead, the game always considers a single (duplicated) key pair. Following, it suffices to construct $\mathcal{B}$ and $\mathcal{C}$ similarly to before, yet omitting any logic accounting for ($\mathcal{A}$'s choice of) independently generated key pairs. Then, since the overall key pair for KEM is the same, each of its components are (pair-wise) the same as well, particularly implying that the contained key pairs for KEM_0 and KEM_1 are respectively the same. In turn, this means both $\mathcal{B}$ and $\mathcal{C}$ succeed in their own game. $\square$

Theorem 24 (QSI Existential Preservation of LEAK-BIND-K-PK and LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK).

Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algoalabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $\text{H} : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, \text{H}]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}, \text{LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), issuing at most $q_{\text{H}} \geq 0$ classical queries to H , it holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_b}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}_b) + \epsilon_b + \frac{q_{\text{H}}^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} ,$$

for $b \in \{0, 1\}$. If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_b}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}_b) + \epsilon_b + \frac{q_{\text{H}}^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} ,$$

for $b \in \{0, 1\}$. In both of the above, $\mathcal{B}_b := \mathcal{B}_b(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem—issuing at most q_{H} queries to H —and ϵ_b denotes the probability of KEM_b generating the same public key in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

Proof. For LEAK-BIND-K-PK, $\mathcal{A}$ succeeds if it provides *any* two encapsulations $c_0 := (c_{00}, c_{01})$ and $c_1 := (c_{10}, c_{11})$ that successfully decapsulate to the *same* shared key $k_0 = k_1$ under two independently generated decapsulation keys $\text{sk}_0 := (\text{sk}_{00}, \text{sk}_{01})$ and $\text{sk}_1 := (\text{sk}_{10}, \text{sk}_{11})$. In this game, the $\text{BB}_{\text{P,Q}}$ predicate reduces to $k_0 = k_1 \neq \perp \wedge \text{pk}_0 \neq \text{pk}_1$. Using similar reasoning (and notation) as in the proof of Theorem 23, it follows that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D] + \frac{q_{\text{H}}^s + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} ,$$

where $s = 2$ for the classical setting and $s = 3$ for the quantum setting. Here, $\neg D$ represents the case where *both* corresponding inputs to H —i.e., the decapsulations from KEM_0 and KEM_1 , as internally performed by KEM—are equal. Certainly, barring the pathological case where independently generated key pairs contain the same public key, this implies that (c_{00}, c_{10}) and (c_{01}, c_{11}) constitute LEAK-BIND-K-PK breaks for KEM_0 and KEM_1 , respectively. More formally, we can split the probability space on an event P that captures the case where two key pairs, independently generated by KEM_0 , contain the same public key, and derive

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge \neg P] + \epsilon_0 ,$$

At this point, the remaining probability statement concerns a case where $\mathcal{A}$'s output contains a LEAK-BIND-K-PK break for KEM_0 . As such, we construct an adversary $\mathcal{B}_0 := \mathcal{B}_0(\mathcal{A})$ that perfectly simulates $\mathcal{A}$'s game, integrating the key pairs it receives from its own game. By the considered case, $\mathcal{B}_0$ is guaranteed to succeed by extracting and returning (c_{00}, c_{10}) from $\mathcal{A}$'s output. That is,

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge \neg P] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}_{\text{KEM}_0}(\mathcal{B}_0) = 1] .$$

Merging the individual steps, we obtain

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}}(\mathcal{B}_0) + \epsilon_0 + \frac{q_H^s + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} ,$$

where $s = 2$ for the classical setting and $s = 3$ for the quantum setting. Furthermore, an analogous analysis shows that we can similarly construct an adversary $\mathcal{B}_1 := \mathcal{B}_1(\mathcal{A})$ such that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}}(\mathcal{B}_1) + \epsilon_1 + \frac{q_H^s + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} .$$

Combining the final two inequalities gives the desired result.

For LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK, an identical proof applies. Indeed, the mere difference is that the encapsulations c_0 and c_1 (and thus c_{00} and c_{10} , as well as c_{01} and c_{11}) are guaranteed to be equal, which does not affect the reasoning. $\square$

Theorem 25 (QSI Universal Preservation of LEAK-BIND-CT-K). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algolabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a function. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against LEAK-BIND-CT-K for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-K}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-K}}(\mathcal{B}) + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-K}}(\mathcal{C}) .$$

Here, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ and $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem.

Proof. For LEAK-BIND-CT-K, $\mathcal{A}$ succeeds if it provides two *equal* encapsulations $c_0 := (c_{00}, c_{01}) = (c_{10}, c_{11}) =: c_1$ that successfully decapsulate to two *different* shared keys $k_0 \neq k_1$ under decapsulation keys $\text{sk}_0 := (\text{sk}_{00}, \text{sk}_{01})$ and $\text{sk}_1 := (\text{sk}_{10}, \text{sk}_{11})$ that *may or may not* be equal. In this game, the $\text{BB}_{P,Q}$ predicate reduces to $c_0 = c_1 \wedge \perp \neq k_0 \neq k_1 \neq \perp$. Similarly to before, it follows (per the decapsulation procedure of KEM) that

$$\begin{aligned} & H(\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{00}, c_{00}), \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{01}, c_{01}), \text{algolabel}) \\ & \quad \neq \\ & H(\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{10}, c_{10}), \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{11}, c_{11}), \text{algolabel}) . \end{aligned}$$

In turn, it must be the case that *at least one* of the inputs to H on the left-hand side is unequal to its counterpart on the right-hand side. Thus, we split the probability space on the event $E := \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{00}, \text{sk}_{00}) \neq \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{10}, \text{sk}_{10})$, noting that $\neg E$ implies $\text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(c_{01}, \text{sk}_{01}) \neq \text{KEM}_1.\text{Decap}(c_{11}, \text{sk}_{11})$ at this point. Then, in the former case, (c_{00}, c_{10}) represents a LEAK-BIND-CT-K break for KEM_0 : c_{00} and c_{10} are *equal* and decapsulate to *different* shared keys. Thus, we construct an adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ that perfectly simulates $\mathcal{A}$'s game while integrating the key pairs it receives from its own game. By the considered case, extracting and returning (c_{00}, c_{10}) from $\mathcal{A}$'s final output ensures that $\mathcal{B}$ succeeds. That is,

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-K}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge E] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-K}_{\text{KEM}_0}(\mathcal{B}) = 1] .$$

The other case (where $\neg E$ holds), is entirely analogous; particularly, we can similarly construct an adversary $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ for which

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-K}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg E] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-K}_{\text{KEM}_1}(\mathcal{C}) = 1] .$$

By definition, the probability statements involving $\mathcal{B}$ and $\mathcal{C}$ are equal to the relevant advantages. Combining the individual steps gives the desired result. $\square$

Theorem 26 (QSI Existential Preservation of LEAK-BIND-CT-PK). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a function. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against LEAK-BIND-CT-PK for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_b}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{B}_b) + \epsilon_b ,$$

for $b \in \{0, 1\}$. Here, $\mathcal{B}_b := \mathcal{B}_b(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem, and ϵ_b denotes the probability of KEM_b generating the same public key in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

Proof. For LEAK-BIND-CT-PK, $\mathcal{A}$ succeeds if it provides two *equal* encapsulations $c_0 := (c_{00}, c_{01}) = (c_{10}, c_{11}) =: c_1$ that successfully decapsulate to *any* shared keys k_0 and k_1 under two independently generated decapsulation keys $\text{sk}_0 := (\text{sk}_{00}, \text{sk}_{01})$ and $\text{sk}_1 := (\text{sk}_{10}, \text{sk}_{11})$. In this game, the $\text{BB}_{P,Q}$ predicate reduces to $c_0 = c_1 \wedge k_0 \neq \perp \wedge k_1 \neq \perp \wedge \text{pk}_0 \neq \text{pk}_1$. Observe that KEM's decapsulation runs the decapsulation procedures of both KEM_0 and KEM_1 and, crucially, fails as soon as *at least one* of them fails. Excluding the pathological case of independently generated public keys being equal, (c_{00}, c_{10}) and (c_{01}, c_{11}) are LEAK-BIND-CT-PK breaks for KEM_0 and KEM_1 , respectively, if (c_0, c_1) is a LEAK-BIND-CT-PK break for KEM. So, proceeding as in the proof for Theorem 24 (and reusing notation), we derive

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg P] + \epsilon_0 ,$$

where $\neg P$ represents the case where two key pairs, independently generated by KEM_0 , contain *different* public keys. Now, the probability on the right-hand side of the inequality concerns a case where $\mathcal{A}$'s output contains a LEAK-BIND-CT-PK break for KEM_0 . Thus, we construct an adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ that perfectly simulates $\mathcal{A}$'s game while integrating the key pairs it receives from its own game. Once $\mathcal{A}$ returns, $\mathcal{B}$ extracts and returns (c_{00}, c_{10}) which, per the considered case, guarantees $\mathcal{B}$'s success:

$$\Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg P] \leq \Pr[\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}_{\text{KEM}_0}(\mathcal{B}) = 1] .$$

Combining the preceding steps, we obtain

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{B}) + \epsilon_0 .$$

Analogously, we can construct an adversary $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ such that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{C}) + \epsilon_1 .$$

Together, the last two inequalities yield the desired result. $\square$

QSF. Following the discussion for QSI, we consider all binding properties within the LEAK adversarial model for QSF as well. Recall that, QSF considers a KEM and a nominal group (instead of two KEMs); furthermore, QSF includes the shared key, encapsulation, and public key from the nominal group in the derivation of its own shared key (see Fig. 12). Consequently, QSF satisfies certain binding properties without requiring any binding-like properties from the nominal group, provided the employed hash function is modeled as a random oracle. Further, some of QSF's binding properties are purely statistical—the bounds only contain terms capturing the probability of (1) generating the same public key in two independent key generations for the nominal group and (2) a collision occurring in the key derivation function. Thus, in the theorems for QSF's binding properties, there

Table 3: High-level overview of established results on QSF’s binding properties. The *Result* indicates how QSF satisfies the binding property in the *Property column*. The *Components* column lists the properties of each component that (indirectly) appear in the bound. ϵ_{pk} denotes the probability of obtaining the same public key from two independent key generations.

	X-BIND ($X \in \{\text{HON}, \text{LEAK}\}$)				MAL-BIND	
	K-CT K,PK-CT	K-PK K,CT-PK	CT-K	CT-PK	K-CT; K,PK-CT K-PK; K,CT-PK	CT-K CT-PK
Result (QSF)	✓	✓	✗	✓	✓	✗
KEM_0	K-CT K,PK-CT	–	–	CT-PK and ϵ_{pk}	K-CT; K,PK-CT K-PK; K,CT-PK	–
$\mathcal{N}$	–	ϵ_{pk}	–	–	–	–
H	CR (RO)	CR (RO)	–	–	CR (RO)	–

is no mention of universal or existential preservation: Either it preserves the binding property of its *only* constituent KEM, or it satisfies the binding property itself without relying on any security property of the underlying KEM and nominal group (not including the distinctness of independently generated public keys for the nominal group). In the proofs of the theorems, we reuse notation and omit reasoning steps that are similar to ones covered before to prevent unnecessary repetition, occasionally referencing the appropriate proof steps instead. Table 3 provides an overview of the results, including those in the HON and MAL models.

Theorem 27 (QSF Preservation of LEAK-BIND-K-CT and LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT). *Let KEM_0 be a KEM with key space $\mathcal{K}_0$, $\mathcal{N}$ a nominal group, $\text{algolabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $\text{H} : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{G}^3 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSF}[\text{KEM}_0, \mathcal{N}, \text{H}]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-CT}, \text{LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), issuing at most $q_{\text{H}} \geq 0$ classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \frac{q_{\text{H}}^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \frac{q_{\text{H}}^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|},$$

In both of the above, adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem, issuing at most q_{H} queries to H .

Proof. A LEAK-BIND-K-CT break for KEM consists of a single encapsulation that decapsulates to two different shared keys. By the decapsulation procedure of KEM, this means that

$$\begin{aligned} & \text{H}(\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{00}, c_{00}), k_{01}, c_{01}, \text{pk}_{01}, \text{algolabel}) \\ &= \\ & \text{H}(\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{10}, c_{10}), k_{11}, c_{11}, \text{pk}_{11}, \text{algolabel}), \end{aligned}$$

where k_{b1} , c_{b1} , and pk_{b1} are the shared keys, encapsulations, and public keys for the nominal group, respectively. As in earlier proofs, splitting the probability space on an event D that captures a

collision for H gives rise to the $\frac{q_H^s+1}{|\mathcal{K}|}$ term (where $s = 2$ in the classical setting and $s = 3$ in the quantum setting), merely leaving a case in which all corresponding inputs to H are equal. Particularly, both $\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{00}, \text{sk}_{00}) = \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{10}, \text{sk}_{10})$ and $c_{01} = c_{11}$; since $(c_{00}, c_{01}) \neq (c_{10}, c_{11})$ (from the fact that $\mathcal{A}$ returns a LEAK-BIND-K-CT break), the latter implies $c_{00} \neq c_{10}$. Hence, (c_{00}, c_{10}) constitutes a LEAK-BIND-K-CT break for KEM_0 . As such, we can construct an adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ nearly identical to the one constructed in the LEAK-BIND-K-CT proof for QSI (Theorem 23); in fact, the differences are mostly syntactical, simply accounting for the differences in handled artifacts. This adversary perfectly simulates the appropriate environment for $\mathcal{A}$ while integrating the values it receives from its own game, succeeding whenever $\mathcal{A}$ would have. This leads to a bound on the final case which, combined with the previous bound, yields the desired result.

For LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT, an analogous analysis with a simpler reduction adversary ($\mathcal{B}$) applies. (Here, the game invariably considers the same key pair and, hence, $\mathcal{B}$ does not have to account for any decision from $\mathcal{A}$ regarding the considered key pairs.) $\square$

Theorem 28 (QSF LEAK-BIND-K-PK and LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK). *Let KEM_0 be a KEM with key space $\mathcal{K}_0$, $\mathcal{N}$ a nominal group, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{G}^3 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSF}[\text{KEM}_0, \mathcal{N}, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{LEAK-BIND-K-PK}, \text{LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), issuing at most q_H classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \epsilon_{\mathcal{N}} + \frac{q_H^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \epsilon_{\mathcal{N}} + \frac{q_H^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

Here, $\epsilon_{\mathcal{N}}$ denotes the probability of KEM generating the same public key for $\mathcal{N}$ in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

Proof. A LEAK-BIND-K-PK break for KEM comprises two encapsulations that decapsulate to the same shared keys under two independently generated decapsulation keys. Akin to the other proofs with the shared key as binding source, we carve out and bound the case where a collision for H occurs, leaving the case where all inputs to the oracle are equal. Now, since the public keys of the nominal group are included in the input to H , they are equal per this remaining case; further, they are independently generated per the assumption that $\mathcal{A}$ returned a LEAK-BIND-K-PK break. Therefore, we can bound the probability of the remaining case by $\epsilon_{\mathcal{N}}$. Combining the established bounds, the result follows.

As the above reasoning does not depend on the (in)equality of the provided encapsulations, an identical proof applies to LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK. $\square$

Theorem 29 (QSF Preservation of LEAK-BIND-CT-PK). *Let KEM_0 be a KEM with key space $\mathcal{K}_0$, $\mathcal{N}$ a nominal group, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{G}^3 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a function. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSF}[\text{KEM}_0, \mathcal{N}, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against LEAK-BIND-CT-PK for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{LEAK-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{B}) + \epsilon_0.$$

Here, adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem and ϵ_0 denotes the probability of KEM_0 generating the same public key in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

Proof. A LEAK-BIND-CT-PK break for KEM consists of a single encapsulations that decapsulates to any (valid) shared keys under two independently generated decapsulation keys. In particular, this implies that KEM internally runs the decapsulation procedure of KEM_0 (twice) on the same encapsulation using two independently generated public keys. Crucially, both of these runs succeed and return a valid shared key since, if any of them failed, KEM would fail as well. Consequently, as long as the key pairs (independently) generated for KEM_0 have distinct public keys, a LEAK-BIND-CT-PK break for KEM contains an analogous break for KEM_0 . Following similar reasoning as the proof for Theorem 26, we bound the case where two public keys, independently generated by KEM_0 , equal ϵ_0 . Then, we construct an adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ such that its advantage against LEAK-BIND-CT-PK for KEM_0 bounds the remaining case. From this, the desired result follows. $\square$

Lastly, QSF does *not* satisfy LEAK-BIND-CT-K. Namely, breaking this property requires the adversary to provide a single encapsulation that decapsulates to two different shared keys. If the decapsulation keys are equal, this is impossible given that decapsulation is deterministic (essentially amounting to the “sanity check” LEAK-BIND-CT, PK-K. Otherwise, i.e., if the key pairs are independently generated, distinctness of the public keys generated by the nominal group already suffices for the resulting shared keys to be different, barring a collision in the hash function on input two such public keys. Thus, LEAK-BIND-CT-K is not satisfied by QSF as long as (1) two independently generated key pairs from the nominal group have different public keys, and (2) no collision occurs on input two such public keys; both of these conditions should be highly likely (in fact, they often underpin security).

3.3 Plugging in FO-Based KEMs

Following the analysis of QSI (and QSF) for fully generic constituent KEMs, we explore where FO-based KEMs fit in. That is, considering the results we established for completely generic KEMs, we aim to demonstrate in what sense the different variants of the FO transform guarantee the C2PRI, IND-CCA, and binding properties—this (indirectly) shows which of the variants may be used to instantiate the frameworks securely. The IND-CCA security of the different variants has already been analyzed previously, e.g., in [HHK17] and many follow-up works. Also, the binding properties of the different variants have recently been analyzed in [KSW24]. Consequently, we focus on the C2PRI property in this work.

More precisely, we show that the proof of [BCD⁺24, Theorem 3, p. 16]—capturing C2PRI for ML-KEM-768—can be generalized to any KEM obtained by applying a variant of the U-transform to a rigid, deterministic PKE scheme. In fact, for some cases, we do not even require rigidity. However, in any case, the results apply to KEMs constructed via (a variant of) the full FO transform, since the T-transform produces a rigid, deterministic PKE scheme (from *any* PKE scheme).

In the ensuing, we first establish the most general result for $\text{U}_m^\perp$, specifically when F and H are implemented by the same function (modeled as a random oracle). Afterward, we consider the case where F and H are independent random oracles—or at least explicitly domain-separated. Then, we proceed to $\text{U}^\perp$, the implicitly rejecting variant that additionally hashes the encapsulation. We also briefly go over the findings for the explicitly rejecting variants, $\text{U}_m^\perp$ and $\text{U}^\perp$, which are mostly implied by those for their implicitly rejecting counterparts. In short, the analyses for $\text{U}_m^\perp$ and $\text{U}^\perp$ are almost identical to those for $\text{U}_m^\perp$ and $\text{U}^\perp$, but simply disregard one of the cases (as the adversary cannot win sending a failing encapsulation). Finally, we discuss further variations used in practice, particularly salted FO and FO with key confirmation.

Theorem 30. *Let dPKE be a deterministic, rigid PKE scheme and $H : \mathcal{X} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle with F as alias, i.e., $F := H$.¹⁶ Further, let $KEM := U_m^\mathcal{X}[\text{dPKE}, H, F]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against C2PRI for KEM (as defined in Fig. 3), issuing at most $q \geq 0$ classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{1}{|\mathcal{K}_F|} + \frac{q+1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{1}{|\mathcal{K}_F|} + \frac{8(2q+1)^2}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

Proof. On a high level, the proof is a three-step argument. First, we show that an adversary that can break C2PRI is able to find a collision for an externally provided value. Then, we argue that this value is uniform in a sufficiently large subset of the domain. Lastly, we present a reduction from generalized second-preimage finding (see Definition 5), bounding the probability of actually finding such a collision.

Step 1. Assume $\mathcal{A}$ provides a valid C2PRI break $c_{\mathcal{A}}$. This means that *both*

$$\text{KEM.Decap}(\text{sk}, c_{\mathcal{A}}) = k^* \tag{1}$$

and

$$c_{\mathcal{A}} \neq c^* = \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m^*) . \tag{2}$$

Note that we always have $k^* = H(m^*)$ for some m^* sampled in **Encap** as it is defined as the partial output of an honest encapsulation. There are two cases to consider (referring to the decryption performed during the decapsulation of $c_{\mathcal{A}}$): $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ decrypts successfully, i.e., it is a valid ciphertext, or not.

Case 1: $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ valid. If $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ is a valid ciphertext, decryption succeeds and results in a message $m_{\mathcal{A}} = \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c_{\mathcal{A}})$. By the rigidity of dPKE, we have that $c_{\mathcal{A}} = \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m_{\mathcal{A}})$. In addition, given that dPKE is a *deterministic* encryption scheme and Eq. (2) holds, it follows that $m^* \neq m_{\mathcal{A}}$ —otherwise, the same message would encrypt to c^* and $c_{\mathcal{A}}$. Hence, we have $H(m^*) = H(m_{\mathcal{A}})$ and $m^* \neq m_{\mathcal{A}}$, while m^* was not chosen by the adversary.

Case 2: $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ invalid. If $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ is an invalid ciphertext, decryption fails, meaning decapsulation returns $F(\text{fk}, c_{\mathcal{A}})$. Thus, $F(\text{fk}, c_{\mathcal{A}}) = H(\text{fk}, c_{\mathcal{A}}) = H(m^*)$. Here, we again distinguish two cases. First, if the inputs are of different length, they are trivially distinct; since m^* is provided externally, the claim follows. Otherwise (i.e., the inputs are of the same length), the probability of the inputs being equal is upper-bounded by $\frac{1}{|\mathcal{K}_F|}$: fk is chosen uniformly at random from $\mathcal{K}_F$, and equality of the overall input particularly requires equality between fk and the corresponding part of m^* (which is uniformly random due to m^* being uniformly random as a whole). Hence, with probability at least $1 - \frac{1}{|\mathcal{K}_F|}$, we can derive a second preimage for some externally given value from the adversary’s output.

Step 2. In all of the above cases, the externally given part of the collision is m^* , which is sampled from the uniform distribution over $\mathcal{M}$.

Step 3. We can give a direct reduction from GSPR of $H = F$ for challenges sampled from $\mathcal{M}$. The reduction, given a challenge input $x \leftarrow \mathcal{M}$ simply sets $m^* \leftarrow x$ during the generation of the C2PRI challenge, observes $\mathcal{A}$ ’s queries, and, depending on the case, returns $m_{\mathcal{A}}$ or $(\text{fk}, c_{\mathcal{A}})$. Applying Lemma 8 and collecting the terms then leads to the claimed bounds. $\square$

¹⁶ According to the definitions of the U-transforms (see Definitions 19 and 20), H and F do not (necessarily) have the same domains. However, for some results in this section, we implicitly assume the existence of a consistent encoding of elements from these different domains into a single joint domain $\mathcal{X}$ for the random oracles (e.g., via bitstrings). This way, statements such as $F := H$ and $H = F$ make sense.

Then, for the other case—i.e., where H and F are independent random oracles—we establish the following result.

Theorem 31. *Let dPKE be a deterministic, rigid PKE scheme, and $H : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ and $F : \mathcal{K}_F \times \mathcal{C} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ (independent) random oracles. Further, let $\text{KEM} := \text{U}_m^\mathcal{K}[\text{dPKE}, H, F]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against C2PRI for KEM (as defined in Fig. 3), respectively issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ and $q_F \geq 0$ classical queries to H and F , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{q_H + q_F + 2}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{8((2q_H + 1)^2 + (2q_F + 1)^2)}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

Proof. The proof is identical to the above for **Case 1**. If we are in this case, we can again apply the reduction from GSPR of H and Lemma 8.

However, if the adversary outputs $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ that falls into **Case 2**, the situation is slightly different. In this case, $\mathcal{A}$ outputs $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ such that $F(\text{fk}, c_{\mathcal{A}}) = H(m^*) = k^*$, where k^* is externally given. In this case, we can give a reduction from OW for F : Given a challenge y for F , the reduction replaces H by the random oracle $H' := H_{m^* \mapsto y}$ that maps m^* to y and replaces k^* by y in the input to $\mathcal{A}$. Given that y is a random value, H' is a random function and the joint distribution of $(H, k^*) = (H', y)$ that $\mathcal{A}$ has access to is identical to that in the real game. Any C2PRI solution $c_{\mathcal{A}}$ returned by $\mathcal{A}$ leads to a valid preimage $(\text{fk}, c_{\mathcal{A}})$ for y under F . Applying Lemma 7 and a union bound gives the claimed bounds. $\square$

Next, we proceed to the other implicitly rejecting variant, $\text{U}^\mathcal{K}$, which additionally uses the encapsulation as part of the input to H . For this variant, we show that the above bounds hold; in fact, in the former case, the bound improves.

Theorem 32. *Theorems 30 and 31 hold when instantiating KEM as $\text{U}^\mathcal{K}[\text{dPKE}, H, F]$. Further, in the setting of Theorem 30 (i.e., when $H = F$), the bounds improve to*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{q + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}$$

when $\mathcal{A}$ issues classical queries, and

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{8(2q + 1)^2}{|\mathcal{K}|}$$

when $\mathcal{A}$ issues quantum queries.

Proof. Here, the only difference to the settings of Theorems 30 and 31 concerns k , as it gets set to $H(m, c)$ instead of $H(m)$. Considering the same case distinction as before, for **Case 1**, this means that $H(m^*, c^*) = H(m_{\mathcal{A}}, c_{\mathcal{A}})$. Here, we are guaranteed by the game that $c^* \neq c_{\mathcal{A}}$ and, hence, $(m^*, c^*) \neq (m_{\mathcal{A}}, c_{\mathcal{A}})$ —i.e., the adversary found a second preimage for H . Additionally, $c^* = \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m^*)$, which means that the externally given target value is uniform in the set $(m, \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m))$. In this case, we can construct a reduction from second preimage finding for H with $(m, \text{Enc}(\text{pk}, m))$. Given that H is a random function, this does not change the bound compared to the above.

For **Case 2**, nothing changes in the analysis for the setting $H \neq F$, except that we program $(m^*, c^*) \mapsto y$ rather than just m^* . The remaining analysis is limited to F , which is identical. For the

setting where $H = F$, the argument simplifies. We have $F(\text{fk}, c_A) = H(\text{fk}, c_A) = H(m^*, c^*)$. Again, if the inputs are of different length, they are trivially distinct; since (m^*, c^*) is externally given, the claim is satisfied. If the inputs are of the same length, they are different by the winning condition $c_A \neq c^*$. Hence, the bound improves as we can drop the $\frac{1}{K_F}$ term. $\square$

Remark 33. At the cost of adding an additive term δ (the correctness error) to the bounds, the above also holds without the requirement for rigidity: When excluding the possibility that the challenge ciphertext produces a decryption failure (i.e., $m^* \neq \text{Dec}(\text{sk}, c^*)$), the above proof also goes through. Here, the analysis of **Case 1** uses Dec instead of Enc to define the redundancy. This only increases the entropy of the externally given value, but does not change the bound. However, the final bound gains an additive term δ for excluding the decryption failure.

So far, we have covered the *implicitly* rejecting variants $U^\perp$ and $U_m^\perp$. The analysis simplifies if we turn to the *explicitly* rejecting variants $U^\perp$ and $U_m^\perp$. For these variants, we get a single results that covers both because they inherently only use a single key derivation function.

Theorem 34. *Let dPKE be a deterministic, rigid PKE scheme, and H a random oracle. Further, let $\text{KEM} := U_m^\perp[\text{dPKE}, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against C2PRI for KEM (as defined in Fig. 3), issuing at most $q \geq 0$ classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{q+1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{8(2q+1)^2}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

The bounds are identical when $\text{KEM} := U^\perp[\text{dPKE}, H]$.

Proof. The proof immediately follows from the analysis above noticing that **Case 2** can never occur. This is because the adversary cannot succeed by sending an invalid ciphertext that gets rejected, since $k^* \neq \perp$ by construction (encapsulation cannot fail). $\square$

While this covers all variants of the conventional FO transform, many real-world constructions use variations of FO that do not directly fall into this category. In the following, we discuss two special such cases: salted FO, used by HQC and FrodoKEM, and FO with key confirmation, used by (variants of) Classic McEliece and (streamlined) NTRU Prime.

SALTED FO. The salted FO transform (SFO) was introduced by the FrodoKEM team in an Annex to their latest specification [ABD⁺23] and later analyzed in [GHS25] with the goal of mitigating the impact of multi-user and -challenge attacks. Later, it was also adopted by HQC. The change to FO, i.e., from those shown in Figs. 5 to 7, is that a value `salt` is sampled uniformly at random as part of the encryption of the T-transform. This value becomes an input to the randomness generation via G (which, in this case, additionally takes the public key, but that is irrelevant for C2PRI). Further, it becomes part of the produced ciphertext. As such, the salt increases the number of possible ciphertexts. Afterward, they apply a variant of the $U^\perp$ transform where the salt becomes an additional input to every function that previously took the PKE ciphertext c as input.¹⁷ FrodoKEM

¹⁷ FrodoKEM still performs the two stage hashing, where the final session key is the output of a key-derivation that takes the ciphertext (thereby also `salt`), and a prekey k that was produced as a function of the public key, the message, and `salt`. While this complicates the IND-CCA proof [MX23, BH23], it is irrelevant for the C2PRI analysis.

as well as HQC¹⁸ thereby feed the entire c , including **salt**, into the key derivation as well as the computation of the rejection key.

Proposition 35. *For the SFO transform, the bounds are identical to those in Theorem 32:*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{q+1}{|\mathcal{K}|}$$

if $\mathcal{A}$ issues classical queries and

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{8(2q+1)^2}{|\mathcal{K}|}$$

if $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries.

Proof (Sketch). In this case the analysis for Theorem 32 fully applies as it essentially only is based on the fact that either computation takes the ciphertext as input in the same position. As the ciphertexts are different by assumption, a solution to C2PRI implies a second preimage for H . In this case, the second preimage challenge is sampled from a slightly larger space than in Theorem 32 as it also includes the salt. $\square$

KEY CONFIRMATION. The first analysis of FO in the QROM [TU16] added a (almost length-preserving) hash of the message, called a key-confirmation hash, to the encapsulation to enable a security proof.¹⁹ When more advanced proof techniques rendered the additional hash obsolete, it was omitted by all proposals considered in this work, except for (streamlined) NTRU Prime and Classic McEliece (in the version considered by ISO, at the time of writing). In short, a key-confirmation variant for any of the considered FO variants is obtained by attaching $H'(m)$ to the encapsulation, for some dedicated hash function $H' \neq H$.²⁰ During decapsulation, the key-confirmation hash is recomputed and compared to the value included in the encapsulation. In case of a mismatch, the encapsulation gets rejected. It is important to note that the key-confirmation hash also becomes an input of the key confirmation. As both schemes use $U^\perp$ with $F := H$, we only consider this case and establish the following result.

Proposition 36. *For $U^\perp$ with key confirmation, the bounds are identical to those in Theorem 32:*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{q+1}{|\mathcal{K}|}$$

if $\mathcal{A}$ issues classical queries and

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \frac{8(2q+1)^2}{|\mathcal{K}|}$$

if $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries.

Proof. The analysis is identical to that of Theorem 32. $\square$

¹⁸ At the time of writing, HQC does not feed **salt** into the key derivation. However, in both personal and public communication [Gab25], the HQC team stated they are about to change the specification this way.

¹⁹ This was necessary to extract messages from ciphertexts by simulating the random oracle using an invertible function (specifically, a $2q$ -wise independent hash function).

²⁰ Not reusing H is crucial as to not leak the shared key [BDG20].

Table 4: Overview of the obtained bounds on C2PRI (advantage) for the considered KEMs, in both the classical and quantum settings. Here, q denotes an upper bound on the number of evaluations of the key derivation function(s) by the adversary. For clarity, the bounds exclude some terms whose contribution would be irrelevant for any practical value for q .

KEM	Bound on C2PRI	
	Classical	Quantum
ML-KEM	$(q + 2)/2^{256}$	$8(2q + 1)^2/2^{256}$
HQC	$q^2/2^{512}$	$q^4/2^{512}$
(e)FrodoKEM-640	$(q + 1)/2^{128}$	$8(2q + 1)^2/2^{128}$
(e)FrodoKEM-976	$(q + 1)/2^{192}$	$8(2q + 1)^2/2^{192}$
(e)FrodoKEM-1344	$(q + 1)/2^{256}$	$8(2q + 1)^2/2^{256}$
Classic McEliece	$(q + 1)/2^{256}$	$8(2q + 1)^2/2^{256}$
sntrup	$(q + 1)/2^{256}$	$8(2q + 1)^2/2^{256}$
NTRU-HPs	$(q + 2)/2^{256}$	$(8(2q + 1)^2 + 1)/2^{256}$
NTRU-HRSS	$(q + 2)/2^{256}$	$(8(2q + 1)^2 + 1)/2^{256}$

4 QSF & QSI with Real-World KEMs

As a final consideration, we examine the usability of the most relevant post-quantum KEMs with the QSF and QSI combiners. As demonstrated in Section 3, the fundamental requirements for such usability—that is, for the resulting combiner KEM to achieve IND-CCA—are IND-CCA and C2PRI security. Further, regarding the binding properties, the requirements heavily depend on the expected security of the resulting combiner KEM. As a general rule of thumb, though, if the resulting KEM is should satisfy property X-BIND-P-Q, the constituent KEM(s) should also satisfy X-BIND-P-Q.

Since all KEMs under consideration have already been analyzed with respect to IND-CCA, we focus on the C2PRI property in what follows, leaving the analysis of the binding properties for future work. Table 4 summarizes the obtained bounds on C2PRI (advantage) for the considered KEMs.

4.1 ML-KEM

The C2PRI security of ML-KEM (as specified in FIPS 203 [oST24]) has already been analyzed in [BCD⁺24]. Although the analysis in [BCD⁺24] focuses explicitly on ML-KEM-768, the same proof and bound apply to the other parameter sets, as they only depend on the functions $G := \text{SHA3-512}$ and $J := \text{SHAKE256}(\cdot, 256)$, which are globally fixed (i.e., independent of the particular parameter set). Observing that ML-KEM internally constructs a rigid, deterministic PKE scheme and subsequently applies U_m^χ with $H := \text{trunc}(G, 256)$ —i.e., the truncation of G ’s output to the first 256 bits—and $F := J$, the application of Theorem 31 gives the bounds listed in Table 4.²¹

Importantly, these bounds assume SHA3-512 and SHAKE256 can securely be modeled as (quantum) random oracles up to q_H and q_F (quantum) queries, respectively. (In the bounds, we let $q = q_H + q_F$.) For the classical setting, the indistinguishability of the sponge construction—the construction underlying SHAKE and SHA3—has been proven in the random permutation model up to $2^{\frac{c}{2}}$ queries [BDPV08], where the capacity c equals 512 for SHAKE256 and $2X$ for SHA3- X . This justifies the assumption to the point where the bounds become trivial/irrelevant. For the quantum

²¹ Here, we let $q = q_H + q_F$. Particularly, this means $(2q_H + 1)^2 + (2q_F + 1)^2 \leq (2q + 1)^2$, which implies the validity of the bound for the quantum case.

setting, the indifferentiability of the sponge construction has successfully evaded analysis for quite some time. A recent preprint [ACMT25] claims a successful analysis against quantum adversaries, but proves a rather loose bound. For the above bounds to remain meaningful, we only require indifferentiability up to $2^{\frac{c}{4}}$ queries, which is still more than [ACMT25] achieves. Nevertheless, this bound seems like a reasonable conjecture because the exact bound is related to finding collisions in the capacity-related part of the internal state: In the quantum setting, collision finding requires *at least* $2^{\frac{c}{3}}$ queries, at the cost of $2^{\frac{c}{3}}$ storage [BHT98].

4.2 HQC

NIST selected HQC [AAB⁺22] for standardization as part of the fourth round of its PQC standardization process [ABC⁺25]. In essence, HQC makes use of the SFO transform referred to in Proposition 35. However, at the time of writing, HQC slightly deviates from the setting described in Section 3.3 because it does not include the salt in the key derivation. Nevertheless, in personal communication, the HQC team has mentioned a pending update to HQC that *would* make it adhere (entirely) to the transform of Proposition 35.

HQC employs a single function K to implement both functions H and F of its SFO transform. K itself is defined using SHAKE256; specifically, for any x ,

$$K(x) := \text{SHAKE256}(x \parallel \text{K_FCT_DOMAIN}, 512) .$$

Given that the output length of $\text{SHAKE256}(\cdot, 512)$ is 512 bits, Proposition 35 suggests a bound on the C2PRI advantage of $(q+1)/2^{512}$ for classical attackers and $8(2q+1)^2/2^{512}$ for quantum attackers. As before, however, these bounds only hold up to the assumption that SHAKE256 behaves like a random oracle, which is justified up to $2^{\frac{c}{2}}$ queries (where the capacity c equals 512 in this case). More precisely, the probability of successful differentiation is bounded by $q^2/2^c$ [BDPV08]. Hence, before applying Proposition 35, a proper security proof should replace SHAKE256 by a random oracle. In the classical setting, this adds a $q^2/2^{512}$ term to the bound, dominating the bound on C2PRI from Proposition 35. In the quantum setting, there is no such proven tight bound, as explained in the analysis for ML-KEM. However, making the same conjecture on the indifferentiability of SHAKE256, we get a bound of $q^4/2^{512}$, again dominating the actual bound on C2PRI. We emphasize this is all under the assumption that HQC is indeed changed to fully comply with the SFO transform.

4.3 (e)FrodoKEM

(e)FrodoKEM [NAB⁺20] builds upon the $U^\perp$ transform. Specifically, the recent version (FrodoKEM) uses the SFO transform; the original version (eFrodoKEM) uses the regular (non-salted) transform [ABD⁺23]. (e)FrodoKEM is currently under consideration for standardization in ISO/IEC [fro25]. Depending on the targeted security level, (e)FrodoKEM instantiates the function H of its transform differently: (e)FrodoKEM-640 uses $\text{SHAKE128}(\cdot, 128)$, (e)FrodoKEM-976 uses $\text{SHAKE256}(\cdot, 192)$, and (e)FrodoKEM-1344 uses $\text{SHAKE256}(\cdot, 256)$.

The previous discussion concerning the indifferentiability of SHAKE similarly applies here. In particular, this means that—under the same assumptions and conjectures as before—Theorem 32 and Proposition 35 give rise to the bounds listed in Table 4.

4.4 Classic McEliece

Currently, Classic McEliece [ABC⁺22] is under consideration for standardization in ISO/IEC [cla25] in two variants, both of which are built from a rigid, deterministic PKE scheme and use a variation

the U^χ transform. However, they differ in the specific variation for the latter: one variant uses the (regular) U^χ transform, the other uses the U^χ transform with *key confirmation* (as described in Section 3.3). In either case, the functions H and F are both instantiated using $\text{SHAKE256}(\cdot, 256)$. As such, combining Theorem 32, Proposition 36, and an analysis (with corresponding assumptions) for SHAKE256 analogous to the ones above, it follows that $(q+1)/2^{256}$ and $8(2q+1)^2/2^{256}$ bound the C2PRI advantage for Classic McEliece in the classical and quantum setting, respectively.

4.5 NTRU

Several NTRU variants are currently under consideration for standardization by the IETF/IRTF: NTRU Prime [BBC⁺20] in its streamlined form, `sntrup`, for SSH [FMJ25]; and both NTRU-HPS and NTRU-HRSS [CDH⁺20] for IKEv2 [FKS⁺25, FPC⁺25].

`sntrup` involves a rigid, deterministic PKE scheme [Ber22] and uses the U^χ transform with key confirmation. Further, it uses SHA2-512 —truncated to the first 32 bytes—to instantiate both H and F . Thus, assuming this truncated version of SHA2-512 can be modeled as a random oracle up to 2^{256} classical queries and up to 2^{128} quantum queries,²² Proposition 36 bounds the C2PRI advantage for `sntrup` as $(q+1)/2^{256}$ and $8(2q+1)^2/2^{256}$ in the classical and quantum setting, respectively.

Both, NTRU-HPS and NTRU-HRSS, apply the U_m^χ transform to a rigid, deterministic PKE scheme, instantiating both H and F with SHA3-256 . Hence, reasoning along similar lines to before, Theorem 30 gives rise to the respective bounds listed in Table 4.²³

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²² For the classical setting this is justified by [CDMP05], observing that a fixed input length is enforced by the construction here. For the quantum setting, the proven bound is $q^3/\sqrt{2^n}$ [Zha19] (where $n = 512$ in this case), which is worse than what we require. At the same time, though, the proof for this bound is based on the same observation as the one in the classical setting: the best way of distinguishing a Merkle-Damgård hash function (with fixed length inputs) from a random oracle is to find a collision in its internal state. This would take at least $q^3/2^n$ for any quantum adversary. Assuming the truth lies somewhere in between, say at most at $q^4/2^n$, justifies the assumption in the quantum setting as well.

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A Random Oracle Bounds

We sketch the remaining proofs for the claimed random oracle bounds (in Section 2.1) used throughout the security analyses. However, for the collision resistance bound (Lemma 6), we simply refer to some of the relevant literature, which is abundant—e.g., see [Zha15, AS04].

For the bound concerning one-wayness (Lemma 7), we sketch the proof below.

Lemma 7: Proof (Sketch). For classical queries, every query has probability $|\mathcal{Y}|^{-1}$ of hitting y . If no match was found with q queries, $\mathcal{A}$ can return a final guess.

When the adversary is given quantum access, the bound can be proven via a reduction from a search problem over boolean functions. See for example [DKKW25] where the claimed bound is proven for the case of tweakable hash functions (that take a tweak and a public parameter as additional inputs). As it is independent of the size of tweak space and public parameter space, it also applies to functions with empty tweak and public parameter space, covering the case of a plain hash function. Our bound has an additional factor 2 which is a correction that comes from tracing constants through their proof and noticing that we have to uncompute query results, which also requires a query, causing the number to double. $\square$

Lastly, for the bound on generalized second-preimage finding (Lemma 8), we provide the following sketch.

Lemma 8: Proof (Sketch). First, note that this property is essentially second-preimage finding where the challenge is not chosen uniformly at random from the whole domain of the function but from a subset. Further, for random oracles, remark that the challenge could even simply be a fixed value, as the success probability of the adversary is taken over the random coins of the oracle. As such, the bounds follow from those of regular second-preimage finding. These have, e.g., been discussed and proven in [HRS16]. Noticing that the proofs therein apply even for a fixed challenge x , the desired result follows. $\square$

Evidently, the above proof (sketch) relies on the fact that, for a random oracle, the second-preimage challenge could be fixed. However, for actual instantiations, it is important that the challenge actually comes from a sufficiently large set to exclude for example precomputation attacks. While we consider the analysis of bounds for specific hash functions out of scope, we think that this detailed analysis can be helpful for a potential later analysis.

B QSF

We reiterate the formal definition of nominal groups and the specification of QSF, both closely following the ones from the original paper proposing X-Wing (and QSF) [BCD⁺24]. For the definition of nominal groups, this paper in turn closely follows [ABH⁺21].

Definition 37 (Nominal Group [BCD⁺24, ABH⁺21]). A nominal group $\mathcal{N}$ is given by a tuple $(\mathcal{G}, g, p, \epsilon_h, \epsilon_u, \text{exp})$ where $\mathcal{G}$ is an efficiently recognizable finite set (of “group elements”), $g \in \mathcal{G}$ is a group element (referred to as “base element”), p is a prime, $\epsilon_h \subset \mathbb{Z}$ is a finite set (of “honest exponents”), $\epsilon_u \subset \mathbb{Z} \setminus p\mathbb{Z}$ is a finite set (of “exponents”), and $\text{exp} : \mathcal{G} \times \mathbb{Z} \rightarrow \mathcal{G}$ is an efficiently computable function (referred to as “exponentiation”) where, for $X \in \mathcal{G}$ and $y \in \mathbb{Z}$, X^y serves as a shorthand for $\text{exp}(X, y)$. Further, exp is such that the following holds:

1. For all $X \in \mathcal{G}$ and $y, z \in \mathbb{Z}$, $(X^y)^z = X^{yz}$.
2. The function $\phi(x) := g^x$ mapping ϵ_u to $\{g^x | x \in [1, p-1]\}$ is a bijection.

With the necessary definitions in place, Fig. 12 provides the specification of QSF.

KeyGen()	Encap(pk := (pk ₀ , pk ₁))	Decap(sk := (sk ₀ , sk ₁ , pk ₁), c := (c ₀ , c ₁))
01 (pk ₀ , sk ₀) ← KEM ₀ .KeyGen()	07 (k ₀ , c ₀) ← KEM ₀ .Encap(pk ₀)	14 k ₀ ← KEM ₀ .Decap(sk ₀ , c ₀)
02 sk ₁ ← _{\$} ε _h	08 sk _e ← _{\$} ε _h	15 k ₁ ← c ₁ ^{sk₁}
03 pk ₁ ← g ^{sk₁}	09 c ₁ ← _{\$} g ^{sk_e}	16 if k ₀ = ⊥
04 pk ← (pk ₀ , pk ₁)	10 k ₁ ← pk ₁ ^{sk_e}	17 return ⊥
05 sk ← (sk ₀ , sk ₁ , pk ₁)	11 k ← H(k ₀ , k ₁ , c ₁ , pk ₁ , algolabel)	18 k ← H(k ₀ , k ₁ , c ₁ , pk ₁ , algolabel)
06 return (pk, sk)	12 c ← (c ₀ , c ₁)	19 return k
	13 return (k, c)	

Fig. 12: QSF[KEM₀, $\mathcal{N}$, H].

KeyGen	Encap(pk := (pk ₀ , pk ₁))	Decap(sk := (sk ₀ , sk ₁), c := (c ₀ , c ₁))
01 (pk ₀ , sk ₀) ← KEM ₀ .KeyGen()	06 (k ₀ , c ₀) ← KEM ₀ .Encap(pk ₀)	11 k ₀ ← KEM ₀ .Decap(sk ₀ , c ₀)
02 (pk ₁ , sk ₁) ← KEM ₁ .KeyGen()	07 (k ₁ , c ₁) ← KEM ₁ .Encap(pk ₁)	12 k ₁ ← KEM ₀ .Decap(sk ₁ , c ₁)
03 sk ← (sk ₀ , sk ₁)	08 k ← H(k ₀ , k ₁ , c ₁ , algolabel)	13 if k ₀ = ⊥ or k ₁ = ⊥
04 pk ← (pk ₀ , pk ₁)	09 c ← (c ₀ , c ₁)	14 return ⊥
05 return (pk, sk)	10 return (k, c)	15 k ← H(k ₀ , k ₁ , c ₁ , algolabel)
		16 return k

Fig. 13: QSI variant that hashes c₁ into k.

C QSI: Variant and Multi-User/Challenge Security

C.1 Variant: Additionally Hashing an Encapsulation

We show that a c₁-hashing variant of QSI achieves IND-CCA security already if KEM₁ satisfies a notion that is weaker than IND-CCA security. We formally define this QSI variant in Fig. 13.

We begin by defining the security notion in question, *one-wayness under plaintext-checking and validity attacks* (OW-PCVA) for KEMs. In essence, this notion is an abstraction of SDH for nominal group KEMs, capturing that it is hard to invert a KEM ciphertext. The plaintext-checking oracle can be viewed as an abstraction of the DH oracle, and the validity oracle captures the case where ciphertexts fail to decapsulate to a shared secret. (Which does not happen for group-based KEMs.)

Definition 38 (OW-PCVA). *Given a KEM KEM := (KeyGen, Encap, Decap) and an adversary $\mathcal{A}$ playing in the OW-PCVA game (as defined in Fig. 14), the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ is defined as*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{OW-PCVA}}(\mathcal{A}) = \Pr \left[\text{OW-PCVA}_{\text{KEM}}^{\mathcal{A}} \Rightarrow 1 \right] .$$

With the necessary definitions at hand, we now prove that the considered QSI variant (Fig. 13) is IND-CCA-secure if KEM₁ is OW-PCVA and KEM₀ is C2PRI-secure, hence weakening the requirement on one of the KEMs compared to the original QSI construction (c.f. Fig. 8 and Theorem 22).²⁴

Theorem 39. *let KEM₀ and KEM₁ be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, algolabel $\in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{C} \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, let KEM be the instantiation of the QSI variant defined in Fig. 13 with KEM₀ and KEM₁. Then, for any adversary*

²⁴ Note that, as opposed to Theorem 22, this proof is in the ROM; specifically, we model the key derivation function H as a random oracle.

Game OW-PCVA_{KEM}:	PCO(k, c)
01 $(pk, sk) \leftarrow \text{KeyGen}()$	05 return $\text{Decap}(sk, c) = k$
02 $(k, c^*) \leftarrow \text{Encap}(pk)$	
03 $k' \leftarrow A^{\text{PCO}, \text{VAL}}(pk, c^*)$	VAL (c)
04 return $k' = k$	06 $k \leftarrow \text{Decap}(sk, c)$
	07 return $k = \perp$

Fig. 14: OW-PCVA game for $\text{KEM} := (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$.

$\mathcal{A}$ against IND-CCA of KEM (as defined in Fig. 2), respectively issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ and $q_{\text{DO}} \geq 0$ to H and DO_{Decap} , it holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{OW-PCVA}}(\mathcal{B}) + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{C}) .$$

Here, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ and $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem. $\mathcal{B}$ issues at most q_H queries to its plaintext-checking oracle, and at most q_{DO} queries to its validity-checking oracle.

Proof. This proof loosely resembles the corresponding proof for QSF [BCD⁺24, Thm. 1]. We prove the statement via a sequence of games, starting with the original IND-CCA game for KEM as G_0 :

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{IND-CCA}}(\mathcal{A}) = \Pr[G_0(\mathcal{A}) = 1] .$$

Game G_1 . We first change the game such that it aborts whenever the challenge shared secret, $\text{H}(k_0^*, k_1^*, c_1^*, \text{algolabel})$, could be given to the attacker through a decapsulation query: concretely, G_1 aborts if $\mathcal{A}$ ever queries Decap on a ciphertext $(c_0, c_1) \neq (c_0^*, c_1^*)$ such that $\text{Decap}_0(c_0) = \text{Decap}_0(c_0^*)$.

The games thus only differ if $\mathcal{A}$ performed a successful C2PRI attack on KEM_0 . We turn this into a successful C2PRI reduction $\mathcal{C}$. Since C2PRI attackers on KEM_0 get the secret key used by KEM_0 and since they can draw the key pair for KEM_1 on their own, $\mathcal{C}$ can perfectly simulate the decapsulation oracle and immediately recognize and output any C2PRI solution c_0 that might appear in $\mathcal{A}$'s decapsulation queries.

$$|\Pr[G_0(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_1(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{C2PRI}}(\mathcal{C}) .$$

Game G_2 . We now further prevent that $\mathcal{A}$ accesses the challenge shared secret through a random oracle query: concretely, G_2 aborts whenever $\mathcal{A}$ queries the random oracle H that models H on the input that generates the challenge shared secret, i.e., $(k_1^*, k_2^*, c_2^*, \text{algolabel})$. After this change, the challenge shared secret is entirely independent of $\mathcal{A}$'s view, thus

$$\Pr[G_2(\mathcal{A}) = 1] = \frac{1}{2} .$$

Games G_1 and G_2 only differ if $\mathcal{A}$ issues this random oracle query, meaning $\mathcal{A}$ knows k_1^* and was able to break one-way security of KEM_1 . A plain one-way reduction, however, would not have the corresponding secret key. It would thus not know how to identify k_1^* without guessing, and more importantly, how to simulate the decapsulation oracle. We will thus give a OW-PCVA reduction $\mathcal{B}$ that leverages its plaintext checking oracle and its validity oracle to resolve both issues.

Before running $\mathcal{A}$, $\mathcal{B}$ picks the key pair and the encapsulation tuple (c_0^*, k_0^*) belonging to KEM_1 on its own. Whenever $\mathcal{B}$ needs to answer a fresh decapsulation query (c_0, c_1) , $\mathcal{B}$ decapsulates c_0 to obtain k_0 and uses its validity oracle to check if c_1 is valid. If it is not, $\mathcal{B}$ returns $\perp$. If it is, $\mathcal{B}$

picks a shared secret k uniformly at random and stores $((c_0, c_1), k)$ in a list to be able to repeat k on repeated query (c_0, c_1) . For simulation consistency, $\mathcal{B}$ will need to suitably simulate H —without having sk_1 , $\mathcal{B}$ needs to ensure that $\mathsf{Decap}(\mathsf{sk}, (c_0, c_1)) = \mathsf{H}(k_0, \mathsf{Decap}_1(\mathsf{sk}_1, c_1), c_1, \mathsf{algolabel})$ for any queried ciphertext (c_0, c_1) . To that end, $\mathcal{B}$'s simulation of the decapsulation oracle will additionally store the triplet (k_1, c_2, k) in a list $\mathcal{L}_D$. When simulating H on an input $(k_0, k_1, c_1, \mathsf{algolabel})$, $\mathcal{B}$ uses its plaintext-checking oracle to check if c_1 decapsulates to k_1 . If this is the case, it checks if there already exists a triplet (k_0, c_1, k) in $\mathcal{L}_D$, and in that case, it returns k . Otherwise, it picks a shared secret k uniformly at random and adds the triplet (k_0, c_1, k) to the list $\mathcal{L}_D$. $\mathcal{B}$ consults $\mathcal{L}_D$ during decapsulation queries to ensure that its response is consistent with a potential previous query to H .

If $\mathcal{A}$ ever queries H on a message of the form $(k_0^*, k_1, c_1^*, \mathsf{algolabel})$ for some k_1 , $\mathcal{B}$ uses its plaintext-checking oracle to check if c_1^* decapsulates to k_1 . It thereby correctly identifies k_1^* upon a query of $\mathcal{A}$ to H on the message $(k_0^*, k_1^*, c_1^*, \mathsf{algolabel})$, thereby winning the OW-PCVA game.

$$|\Pr[G_1(\mathcal{A}) = 1] - \Pr[G_2(\mathcal{A}) = 1]| \leq \mathsf{Adv}_{\mathsf{KEM}_1}^{\text{OW-PCVA}}(\mathcal{B}).$$

□

C.2 Multi-User/Challenge IND-CCA

We argue that QSI inherently preserves multi-user/challenge IND-CCA security for natural base KEMs. The multi-user/challenge IND-CCA game captures n_u many honest users by sampling n_u many key pairs. It captures that they can be attacked multiple times by providing a challenge oracle Chal that can be called n_c many times. Chal can be called on any user index $i \in [n_u]$. For the j -th call $\mathsf{Chal}(i)$, it will then generate an IND-CCA challenge $(c_j, K_{j,b})$ according to the i -th key pair and the game's challenge bit b . As in the plain IND-CCA game, the attacker is tasked with determining b .

Next, we give a high-level sketch of how the plain IND-CCA proof could be adapted to the multi-user/challenge setting. Here, we'll only discuss the case considering C2PRI-security of KEM_0 and IND-CCA-security of KEM_1 . Since the reverse case is completely symmetrical, this is without loss of generality.

Proof (Sketch). We briefly recall the proof of the “plain IND-CCA” Theorem 22: to argue that the honest key $k^* = \mathsf{H}(k_0^*, k_1^*, \mathsf{algolabel})$ is (computationally) indistinguishable from random, the proof

1. ensured that k^* will never be given out as a permitted decapsulation, based on C2PRI security of KEM_0 ,
2. used IND-CCA security of KEM_1 to argue that k_1^* can be replaced with random,
3. employed the skPRF property of H to replace the challenge shared secret k^* with random,
4. and undid the change to k_1^* and the C2PRI-related abort.

To capture that n_u many honest users that can be attacked n_c many times, we can start by adapting step 1; to prevent that any of the n_c many challenge secrets $k^1, \dots, k^{n_c}$ are given out as a permitted decapsulation, by means of an abort whenever this would happen. To that end, one can use a multi-user variant of C2PRI for KEM_0 , in which the attacker is given n_u many key pairs $(pk_1, sk_1), \dots, (pk_{n_u}, sk_{n_u})$ sampled according to KeyGen_1 , can adaptively select key pairs out of those for which it can then request a challenge ciphertext sampled according to $(c_j, k_j) \leftarrow \mathsf{Encap}_0(pk_i)$, and wins if it outputs a user index i , a challenge index j that happened using pk_i , and a second preimage, so a ciphertext $c'_j \neq c_j$ such that $\mathsf{Decap}_0(sk_i, c'_j) = k_j$.

To adapt step 2, we can use multi-user IND-CCA security of KEM_1 to replace the KEM_1 -related shared secrets within the challenges with random. The respective reduction can sample the key pairs for KEM_0 on its own and will simulate the QSI challenge oracle by sampling honest encapsulations

for KEM_0 and calling its own challenge oracle for KEM_1 . It can simulate the decapsulation oracles for the n_u many users by using the key pairs for KEM_0 and the respective decapsulation oracles for KEM_1 . When the attacker queries the decapsulation oracle on a ciphertext (c_0, c_1) that has been sampled as one of the QSI challenges for the same user, the reduction will use the corresponding KEM_1 challenge to derive its response. Similar to the plain IND-CCA proof, this simulation works unless one of the KEM_1 challenge ciphertexts fails to decapsulate. This happens with probability at most δ'_1 , when δ'_1 is an upper bound for any adversary's success advantage in the following adaptive correctness game: the game prepares n_u many key pairs, and the adversary is allowed to trigger Encap n_c many times, choosing which of the sampled key pairs is being used each time, and wins if any of the sampled decapsulations triggers decryption failure.

To adapt step 3, we can use a multi-user variant of the skPRF property of H twice to replace the n_c many challenge secrets $k^1, \dots, k^{n_c}$ with random. In that variant, the attacker would still have adaptive control over all skPRF key components $k_1, \dots, k_{j-1}, k_j, k_{j+1}, \dots, k_n$ except for the component slot for k_j , for which the game samples n_c many, and the attacker gets access to an oracle that looks like the plain skPRF oracle, except that the attacker uses an additional input i to specify which of the n_c many samples is supposed to be used in the j -th key component slot.

To adapt step 4, we can then once more use multi-user IND-CCA security of KEM_1 to switch the KEM_1 -related shared secrets within the challenges back to honest, and lastly, lift the abort, by invoking the multi-user variant of C2PRI for KEM_0 once more. $\square$

D Binding: Remaining Definitions and Security Proofs

D.1 Definition: Malicious Binding (MAL)

The main body of the paper covers the definitions of all binding properties in the HON (honest) and LEAK (leaking) adversarial models. This leaves the strongest model in MAL (malicious), which captures a scenario where the adversary is able to determine the considered key material itself (instead of these being honestly generated). Evidently, this is a rather strong adversarial model. In fact, it is so strong that, without additional restrictions, it allows the adversary to trivially break any binding property with the public key as binding target by providing key pairs with unrelated secret and public keys. To remedy this, we follow the approach of Schmieg in [Sch24] and introduce an additional function $\text{sktopk} : \mathcal{SK} \rightarrow \mathcal{PK}$ that (honestly) computes a public key corresponding to a secret key, in line with the key generation procedure of the considered KEM.²⁵ Then, rather than entire *key pairs*, the adversary provides secret decapsulation keys only, and the corresponding public keys are computed through sktopk . Beyond supplying decapsulation keys, the adversary may choose to provide randomness instead of one or both encapsulations. The encapsulations are then produced through the KEM's encapsulation procedure, using the provided randomness as input. The formal definition is given below.

Definition 40 (KEM Binding (MAL) [CDM24]). *Let $P, Q \subset \{\text{PK}, \mathcal{C}, \mathcal{K}\}$ such that $P \cap Q = \emptyset$, where $\text{PK} := \{\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1\}$, $\mathcal{C} := \{c_0, c_1\}$, and $\mathcal{K} := \{k_0, k_1\}$. Further, define “binding break” predicate*

$$\begin{aligned} \text{BB}_{P,Q} : \mathcal{PK} \times \mathcal{PK} \times \mathcal{C} \times \mathcal{C} \times \mathcal{K} \times \mathcal{K} &\rightarrow \{\text{true}, \text{false}\} \\ \text{BB}_{P,Q}(\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1, c_0, c_1, k_0, k_1) &:= k_0 \neq \perp \wedge k_1 \neq \perp \wedge (\forall_{p \in P} : p_0 = p_1) \wedge (\exists_{q \in Q} : q_0 \neq q_1) , \end{aligned}$$

where p_b (resp. q_b) refers to the respective element in the set p (resp. q); e.g., if $p = \text{PK}$, p_0 denotes pk_0 . Lastly, let $\text{KEM} = (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$ be a KEM for which the function $\text{sktopk} : \mathcal{SK} \rightarrow \mathcal{PK}$

²⁵ For many KEMs, among which most of the widely considered post-quantum ones, this is trivial since the secret key typically contains the entire public key or some information to recompute it.

maps secret keys to public keys in line with **KeyGen**. Then, given an adversary $\mathcal{A} = (\mathcal{A}_1, \mathcal{A}_2)$ playing in the MAL-BIND-P-Q game (as defined in Fig. 15), the advantage of $\mathcal{A}$ is defined as

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) := \Pr[\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1] .$$

Game MAL-BIND-P-Q_{KEM}($\mathcal{A}$): <pre> 01 $d \leftarrow \mathcal{A}_1()$ 02 if $d = \text{DecapDecap}$ 03 $\text{sk}_0, \text{sk}_1, c_0, c_1 \leftarrow \mathcal{A}_2()$ 04 $\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1 \leftarrow \text{sktopk}(\text{sk}_0), \text{sktopk}(\text{sk}_1)$ 05 $k_0 \leftarrow \text{Decap}(\text{sk}_0, c_0)$ 06 $k_1 \leftarrow \text{Decap}(\text{sk}_1, c_1)$ 07 else if $d = \text{EncapDecap}$ 08 $\text{sk}_0, \text{sk}_1, r_0, c_1 \leftarrow \mathcal{A}_2()$ 09 $\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1 \leftarrow \text{sktopk}(\text{sk}_0), \text{sktopk}(\text{sk}_1)$ 10 $k_0, c_0 \leftarrow \text{Encap}(\text{pk}_0; r_0)$ 11 $k_1 \leftarrow \text{Decap}(\text{sk}_1, c_1)$ 12 else $\text{// } d = \text{EncapEncap}$ 13 $\text{sk}_0, \text{sk}_1, r_0, r_1 \leftarrow \mathcal{A}_2()$ 14 $\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1 \leftarrow \text{sktopk}(\text{sk}_0), \text{sktopk}(\text{sk}_1)$ 15 $k_0, c_0 \leftarrow \text{Encap}(\text{pk}_0; r_0)$ 16 $k_1, c_1 \leftarrow \text{Encap}(\text{pk}_1; r_1)$ 17 return $\text{BB}_{\text{P,Q}}(\text{pk}_0, \text{pk}_1, c_0, c_1, k_0, k_1)$ </pre>

Fig. 15: MAL-BIND-P-Q game for $\text{KEM} = (\text{KeyGen}, \text{Encap}, \text{Decap})$ and $\text{P}, \text{Q} \subset \{\text{PK}, \text{C}, \text{K}\}$ such that $\text{P} \cap \text{Q} = \emptyset$.

D.2 Honest Binding (HON) for QSF & QSI

The binding properties in the HON and LEAK model (see Definition 15) share a similar structure, with a single difference: In the HON model, the adversary has access to a decapsulation oracle; in the LEAK model, the adversary has access to the decapsulation keys. Importantly, in both models, all key material is honestly generated and remains beyond the adversary's control. This similarity enables both the results and proofs for QSF and QSI to almost directly carry over between the models, requiring only minor adjustments to account for the difference in adversarial capabilities and environment. Notably, these adjustments necessitate little novel reasoning or insights, allowing for a straightforward translation; furthermore, they are nearly identical for all properties and even across both combiners. As such, to avoid unnecessary repetition, we present only one full proof (for QSI) in the HON model, highlighting the similarities and differences with their counterparts in the LEAK model. For the remaining results, the proofs mostly refer back to the relevant steps in other proofs.

QSI. The results we establish for QSI in the HON model are direct analogs of those in the LEAK model. Particularly, this means we consider the same categorization based on (1) the use of a random oracle (2) the kind of preservation (existential or universal). Furthermore, the results hold in both in the classical and quantum setting, though with slightly varying concrete bounds.

From the six properties, we provide a detailed proof for HON-BIND-K-CT (and HON-BIND-K,PK-CT), as it incorporates all the necessary modifications for transitioning results and proofs from the LEAK model. As such, it offers an instructive example and serves as a useful reference for other proofs.

Theorem 41 (QSI Universal Preservation of HON-BIND-K-CT and HON-BIND-K,PK-CT). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $\text{H} : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, \text{H}]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{HON-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}, \text{HON-BIND-K,PK-CT}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), respectively issuing at most $q_{\text{H}} \geq 0$ and $q_{\text{DO}} \geq 0$ classical queries to H and DO_{Decap} , it holds that*

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) \\ &\quad + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{C}) \\ &\quad + \frac{(q_{\text{H}} + q_{\text{DO}})^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} . \end{aligned}$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) \\ &\quad + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{C}) \\ &\quad + \frac{(q_{\text{H}} + q_{\text{DO}})^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} . \end{aligned}$$

In both of the above, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ and $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem, with each issuing at most q_{H} queries to H and q_{DO} queries to its decapsulation oracle.

Proof. Foremost, the conditions for success in HON-BIND-K-CT are identical to those for the analogous property in the LEAK model, as the $\text{BB}_{\text{P,Q}}$ predicate reduces to the same formula: $k_0 = k_1 \neq \perp \wedge c_0 \neq c_1$. To reiterate, the adversary must provide two *different* encapsulations $c_0 := (c_{00}, c_{01}) \neq (c_{10}, c_{11}) =: c_1$ that decapsulate to the *same* shared keys $k_0 = k_1$ under decapsulation keys $\text{sk}_0 := (\text{sk}_{00}, \text{sk}_{01})$ and $\text{sk}_1 := (\text{sk}_{10}, \text{sk}_{11})$ that *may or may not* be equal (as $\mathcal{A}$ may decide itself whether to consider the same or independently generated key pairs). Following the reasoning from the proof for LEAK-BIND-K-CT (Theorem 23), this means that all corresponding inputs to H (computing the final shared keys) are equal *unless* a collision occurred. Thus, as before, splitting the probability space based on an event D that captures the case where *any* of the corresponding inputs are unequal, we derive

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \Pr[\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D] \\ &\quad + \frac{(q_{\text{H}} + q_{\text{DO}})^s + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} , \end{aligned}$$

where $s = 2$ in the classical setting and $s = 3$ in the quantum setting. Here, the only difference with the proof for LEAK-BIND-K-CT concerns the additional q_{DO} term in the collision bound. Indeed, because DO (as trivially simulated by the reduction adversaries) decapsulates in line with KEM 's decapsulation procedure, it requires an invocation of H to compute the final shared key. As such, each query $\mathcal{A}$ issues to DO in turn results in a query to H for which $\mathcal{A}$ (indirectly) controls the input *and* sees the output. Consequently, each query to DO may be another opportunity for ($\mathcal{A}$'s discovery of) a collision in H and, hence, $\mathcal{A}$'s success. This gives rise to the additional q_{DO} term in the bound.

At this point, we can continue exactly as in the proof for LEAK-BIND-K-CT, merely adjusting the reduction adversaries to simulate the decapsulation oracle for $\mathcal{A}$. That is, we split the probability space on the event $C := c_{00} \neq c_{10}$ (at this point, $\neg C$ implies $c_{01} \neq c_{11}$). Then, in the case where C holds, we simultaneously have $c_{00} \neq c_{10}$ and $\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{00}, \text{sk}_0) = \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(c_{10}, \text{sk}_0)$. Hence, we can construct an adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ against HON-BIND-K-CT for KEM_0 that, first, runs $\mathcal{A}_1$ and directly returns its output, indicating whether to consider the same or independently generated key pairs. Upon receiving the (potentially duplicated) key pairs from its own game, $\mathcal{B}$ behaves similarly to the analogous reduction adversary in the proof for LEAK-BIND-K-CT—i.e., it generates key pair(s) with KEM_1 , combines them with the ones (for KEM_0) received from its own game,²⁶ and runs $\mathcal{A}_2$ on the result while perfectly simulating any oracle calls—but additionally simulates the decapsulation oracle. Specifically, it does so by performing (1) the KEM_0 decapsulations using its own decapsulation oracle, (2) the KEM_1 decapsulations using the secret key(s) it generated itself earlier, and (3) the derivation of the final shared key using H . After $\mathcal{A}_2$ terminates, $\mathcal{B}$ extracts and returns the break for its own game, contained in $\mathcal{A}_2$'s output; hence, we establish the following bound:

$$\Pr[\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge C] \leq \Pr[\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}_0}(\mathcal{B}) = 1] .$$

The other case (where $\neg C$ holds), is completely symmetrical. That is, we can similarly construct an adversary $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ —obtained by adapting its counterpart in the proof for LEAK-BIND-K-CT in an analogous manner (to $\mathcal{B}$)—such that

$$\Pr[\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}}(\mathcal{A}) = 1 \wedge \neg D \wedge \neg C] \leq \Pr[\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}_{\text{KEM}_1}(\mathcal{C}) = 1] .$$

The desired bound follows by combining the individual steps.

For HON-BIND-K,PK-CT, a simplified version of the proof applies, obtained by adjusting the reduction adversaries from the corresponding proof in the LEAK model in the same manner as above. $\square$

Theorem 42 (QSI Existential Preservation of HON-BIND-K-PK and HON-BIND-K,CT-PK).

Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{HON-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{HON-BIND-K-PK}, \text{HON-BIND-K,CT-PK}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), respectively issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ and $q_{\text{DO}} \geq 0$ classical queries to H and DO_{Decap} , it holds that

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_b}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}_b) \\ &\quad + \epsilon_b + \frac{(q_H + q_{\text{DO}})^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} , \end{aligned}$$

for $b \in \{0, 1\}$. If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_b}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}_b) \\ &\quad + \epsilon_b + \frac{(q_H + q_{\text{DO}})^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} , \end{aligned}$$

for $b \in \{0, 1\}$. In both of the above, $\mathcal{B}_b := \mathcal{B}_b(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem—issuing at most q_H queries to H and q_{DO} queries to its decapsulation oracle—and ϵ_b denotes the probability of KEM_b generating the same public key in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

²⁶ Naturally, in this case, the reduction adversary only combines and passes the *public keys*, as this is what $\mathcal{A}$ expects (and the reduction adversary does not get the secret keys from its own game). This is different from (the proof for) LEAK-BIND-K-CT, which deals with entire key pairs.

Proof. The proofs proceed in the same manner as those for LEAK-BIND-K-PK and LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK (Theorem 24), appropriately adjusted to account for the differences in adversarial capabilities and environment (i.e., in terms of oracles and input/output values). These adjustments are analogous to the ones in Theorem 41. $\square$

Theorem 43 (QSI Universal Preservation of HON-BIND-CT-K). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algoalabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a function. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against HON-BIND-CT-K for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), issuing at most $q_{\text{DO}} \geq 0$ queries to DO_{Decap} , it holds that*

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-CT-K}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{HON-BIND-CT-K}}(\mathcal{B}) \\ &\quad + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{HON-BIND-CT-K}}(\mathcal{C}) . \end{aligned}$$

Here, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ and $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem, with each issuing at most q_{DO} queries to its decapsulation oracle.

Proof. The proof is similar to that for LEAK-BIND-CT-K (Theorem 25), appropriately adjusted to account for the differences in adversarial capabilities and environment. These adjustments are analogous to the ones in Theorem 41. $\square$

Theorem 44 (QSI Existential Preservation of HON-BIND-CT-PK). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algoalabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a function. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against HON-BIND-CT-PK for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), issuing at most $q_{\text{DO}} \geq 0$ queries to DO_{Decap} , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_b}^{\text{HON-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{B}_b) + \epsilon_b ,$$

for $b \in \{0, 1\}$. Here, $\mathcal{B}_b := \mathcal{B}_b(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem—issuing at most q_{DO} queries to its decapsulation oracle—and ϵ_b denotes the probability of KEM_b generating the same public key in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

Proof. The proof is similar to that for LEAK-BIND-CT-PK (Theorem 26), appropriately adjusted to account for the differences in adversarial capabilities and environment. These adjustments are analogous to the ones in Theorem 41. $\square$

QSF. As for QSI, the results in the HON model for QSF are direct analogs of those in the LEAK model. Moreover, the adaptations required for each of the proofs are similar to those needed for (the proofs of the same property of) QSI. Certainly, since the results we established for QSF only rely on (non-interactive) statistical properties as far as the nominal group is concerned, the proofs require no changes related to the reasoning around the nominal group. Hence, nearly all required changes concern the reasoning around the oracles, which is identical to that for QSI. For this reason, we do not cover any proof in detail, but back-reference the appropriate proof steps instead.

Theorem 45 (QSF Preservation of HON-BIND-K-CT and HON-BIND-K,PK-CT). *Let KEM_0 be a KEM with key space $\mathcal{K}_0$, $\mathcal{N}$ a nominal group, $\text{algoalabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{G}^3 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSF}[\text{KEM}_0, \mathcal{N}, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{HON-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{HON-BIND-K-CT}, \text{HON-BIND-K,PK-CT}\}$ for KEM (as*

defined in Fig. 4), respectively issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ and $q_{DO} \geq 0$ classical queries to H and DO_{Decap} , it holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \frac{(q_H + q_{DO})^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \frac{(q_H + q_{DO})^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|},$$

In both of the above, adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem, issuing at most q_H queries to H and q_{DO} queries to its decapsulation oracle.

Proof. The proofs are similar to that for LEAK-BIND-K-CT and LEAK-BIND-K,PK-CT (Theorem 27), appropriately adjusted to account for the differences in adversarial capabilities and environment. These adjustments are analogous to the ones in Theorem 41. $\square$

Theorem 46 (QSF HON-BIND-K-PK and HON-BIND-K,CT-PK). Let KEM_0 be a KEM with key space $\mathcal{K}_0$, $\mathcal{N}$ a nominal group, $\text{algolabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{G}^3 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSF}[\text{KEM}_0, \mathcal{N}, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{HON-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{HON-BIND-K-PK}, \text{HON-BIND-K,CT-PK}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), respectively issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ and $q_{DO} \geq 0$ classical queries to H and DO_{Decap} , it holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \epsilon_{\mathcal{N}} + \frac{(q_H + q_{DO})^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \epsilon_{\mathcal{N}} + \frac{(q_H + q_{DO})^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

Here, $\epsilon_{\mathcal{N}}$ denotes the probability of $\mathcal{N}$ generating the same public key in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

Proof. The proofs are similar to that for LEAK-BIND-K-PK and LEAK-BIND-K,CT-PK (Theorem 28), appropriately adjusted to account for the differences in adversarial capabilities and environment. These adjustments are analogous to the ones in Theorem 41. $\square$

Theorem 47 (QSF Preservation of HON-BIND-CT-PK). Let KEM_0 be a KEM with key space $\mathcal{K}_0$, $\mathcal{N}$ a nominal group, $\text{algolabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{G}^3 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a function. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSF}[\text{KEM}_0, \mathcal{N}, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against HON-BIND-CT-PK for KEM (as defined in Fig. 4), issuing at most $q_{DO} \geq 0$ queries to DO_{Decap} , it holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{HON-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{HON-BIND-CT-PK}}(\mathcal{B}) + \epsilon_0.$$

Here, adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem—issuing at most q_{DO} queries to its decapsulation oracle—and ϵ_0 denotes the probability of KEM_0 generating the same public key in two independent executions of its key generation procedure.

Proof. The proof is similar to that for LEAK-BIND-CT-PK (Theorem 29), appropriately adjusted to account for the differences in adversarial capabilities and environment. These adjustments are analogous to the ones in Theorem 41. $\square$

Lastly, QSF does *not* satisfy HON-BIND-CT-K for similar reasons it does not satisfy the LEAK model analog: Breaking this property requires the adversary to provide a single encapsulation that decapsulates to two different shared keys, which (1) is impossible if the decapsulation keys are equal (due to decapsulation being deterministic), and (2) if the decapsulation keys are different, distinctness of the public keys generated by the nominal group already results in a break, barring a collision in the hash function.

D.3 Malicious Binding (MAL) for QSF & QSI

In the MAL model, the situation differs from that of the other models. This is primarily due to the adversary’s ability to generate key material, which invalidate arguments that rely on the probability of independently generated public keys being distinct. Such reasoning played a role in the proofs of several results for the HON and LEAK models, and was the main differentiating factor between the results. However, the other core techniques—namely, arguments concerning (1) collisions in the random oracle, and (2) the extraction of an analogous break for a constituent KEM from a break against the combiner—remain applicable. These techniques can be lifted and extended to the MAL model to still establish preservation results. Nevertheless, with the main source of differentiation removed, the results we establish can essentially be unified in a single category for each of the combiners.

QSI. For QSI, the results we establish in the MAL model are all instances of universal preservation. That is, if *both* of the constituent KEMs satisfy a certain binding property, QSI does as well. Depending on the property, the hash function may or may not be modeled as a random oracle. More precisely, as in the other models, the hash function is modeled as a random oracle for properties where the shared key is a binding source. To keep the statements clear and concise, we separate the results for QSI into two theorems. Although both can be categorized as universal preservation, we split them into those in the random oracle model and those in the standard model; i.e., those that have the shared key as binding source and those that do not.

Theorem 48 (QSI Universal Preservation of Malicious Binding (K as Source)). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{MAL-BIND-K-CT}, \text{MAL-BIND-K,PK-CT}, \text{MAL-BIND-K-PK}, \text{MAL-BIND-K,CT-PK}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 15), issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ to H , it holds that*

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) \\ &\quad + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{C}) + \frac{q_H^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} . \end{aligned}$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) \\ &\quad + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{C}) + \frac{q_H^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|} . \end{aligned}$$

In both of the above, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ and $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem, with each issuing at most q_H queries to H .

Proof. For all properties, the proof proceeds similarly. First, akin to the proofs for the analogous properties in the other models, we commence by noting that the $\text{BB}_{P,Q}$ predicate reduces to one that requires the adversary to return values such that, in the end, the shared keys are the same. Per the decapsulation procedure of KEM, this means that the key derivation performed by the two decapsulations gives the same output. In turn, we can carve out the case where any of the corresponding inputs are unequal, implying a collision for H occurred, and bound accordingly. This gives rise to the $(q_H^s + 1)/|\mathcal{K}|$ term in the bound (where $s = 2$ for the classical setting and $s = 3$ for the quantum setting).

Then, it remains to bound the case where all corresponding inputs to H are equal, at which point we can deduce that the break returned by $\mathcal{A}$ *must* contain an analogous break one of the constituent KEMs:

- MAL-BIND-K-CT. The encapsulations (c_{00}, c_{01}) and (c_{10}, c_{11}) returned by $\mathcal{A}$ (either directly or indirectly by providing the randomness used to create it/them) are unequal. In particular, this means that $c_{00} \neq c_{10} \vee c_{01} \neq c_{11}$. However, per the considered case, we have that both $\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{00}, c_{00}) = \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{10}, c_{10})$ and $\text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{01}, c_{01}) = \text{KEM}_0.\text{Decap}(\text{sk}_{11}, c_{11})$. As such, if $c_{0b} \neq c_{1b}$, then the break for KEM contains a break for KEM_b .
- MAL-BIND-K,PK-CT. As MAL-BIND-K-CT, but with equal public keys. Notice that, equal public keys for KEM implies equal public keys for both constituent KEMs. So, whichever part of the encapsulations is unequal, the public keys for the corresponding constituent KEM are always equal (which is the additional requirement for the break to be valid in this case).
- MAL-BIND-K-PK. Analogous to MAL-BIND-K-CT, but applying the reasoning around the encapsulations to the public keys instead.
- MAL-BIND-K,CT-PK. As MAL-BIND-K,PK-CT, but interchanging the roles of (and reasoning for) the encapsulations and public keys.

Thus, as long as we can construct reduction adversaries that properly simulate $\mathcal{A}$'s environment, we can bound the remaining cases by reducing from the corresponding binding properties of the constituent KEMs. However, since $\mathcal{A}$'s entire environment consists only of H (i.e., no other inputs or oracles),²⁷ this simulations is trivial and, moreover, identical across all considered properties. That is, the reduction adversaries (1) run $\mathcal{A}_1$, directly forwarding any of its queries to H , and immediately return its output; and (2) run $\mathcal{A}_2$, again directly forwarding any of its queries to H , and straightforwardly extract and return the values relevant for their own game from its output. As an example, consider a reduction adversary against KEM_b (independent of the specific property). If $\mathcal{A}_1$ returns $d = \text{EncapsDecaps}$, then $\mathcal{A}_2$ returns two secret decapsulation keys, randomness, and an encapsulation. All of these are simply composed of a part for KEM_0 and a part for KEM_1 . Therefore, the reduction adversary can simply extract and return the values for KEM_b . (Since the reduction adversary also directly returned $d = \text{EncapsDecaps}$, this matches the values it is expected to provide.) Comparable reasoning applies when $\mathcal{A}_1$ chooses d to be DecapsDecaps or EncapsEncaps . By the considered case, the reduction adversary succeeds in its own game and we can bound accordingly. This leads to the advantage terms in the bound. Combining the individual steps yields the desired result. $\square$

Theorem 49 (QSI Universal Preservation of Malicious Binding (K Not as Source)). *Let KEM_0 and KEM_1 be KEMs with respective key spaces $\mathcal{K}_0$ and $\mathcal{K}_1$, $\text{algolabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{K}_1 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a function. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSI}[\text{KEM}_0, \text{KEM}_1, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against $\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q} \in \{\text{MAL-BIND-CT-K}, \text{MAL-BIND-CT-PK}\}$ for KEM (as*

²⁷ Also, there is no need for any advanced techniques with respect to the random oracle.

defined in Fig. 15), it holds that

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) &\leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) \\ &\quad + \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_1}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{C}) . \end{aligned}$$

Here, adversaries $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ and $\mathcal{C} := \mathcal{C}(\mathcal{A})$ are as constructed in the proof of this theorem.

Proof. Once again, for both proofs, the first reasoning steps match those in the proofs for the analogous properties in the other models (because the final $\text{BB}_{\text{P,Q}}$ predicate is independent of the model). Subsequently, the construction of the reduction adversaries closely follows that in the proof for Theorem 48.

For MAL-BIND-CT-K, we start by noting that, since the final shared keys are unequal, at least one of the corresponding inputs to the key derivation function must be as well. Here, we distinguish two cases: the shared keys produced by KEM_0 are unequal, or they are not, in which case the shared keys produced by KEM_1 must be unequal. In the former, the break returned by $\mathcal{A}$ contains an analogous break for KEM_0 : the corresponding encapsulations are equal by the assumption that $\mathcal{A}$ succeeds, and the corresponding shared keys are unequal by the considered case. The latter case is entirely symmetrical. So, in either case, we can construct a reduction adversary that perfectly simulates $\mathcal{A}$'s environment—akin to the ones in the proof for Theorem 48—extracts the relevant break, and succeeds in its own game. The desired result follows.

For MAL-BIND-CT-PK, there is no requirement on the shared keys at all, except for them not being equal to $\perp$, i.e., the corresponding decapsulations must succeed. Per the decapsulation procedure of KEM, this means that the final key derivation went through and, particularly, that the procedure was *not* aborted due to a failure in the decapsulations by KEM_0 and KEM_1 . By the assumption that $\mathcal{A}$ succeeds, the overall KEM public key must be different. Since this simply consists of a part for KEM_0 and a part for KEM_1 , we can distinguish two cases: the public keys for KEM_0 are unequal, or they are not, in which case the public keys for KEM_1 must be unequal. Since the encapsulations for both constituent KEMs are equal (again by the assumption that $\mathcal{A}$ succeeds), the former (resp. latter) case encompasses a MAL-BIND-CT-PK break for KEM_0 (resp. KEM_1). In either case, we can construct a reduction adversary that perfectly simulates the environment of $\mathcal{A}$ —similar to the ones in the proof for Theorem 48—extracts the relevant break, and succeeds in its own game. The desired result follows. $\square$

QSF. As for QSI, essentially all results we establish for QSF in the MAL model fall under the same category. Specifically, this category concerns “regular” preservation: QSF preserves the binding property satisfied by its (only) constituent KEM. Indeed, because QSF uses all artifacts from its nominal group as inputs to the final key derivation, it does not need to depend on any binding-like properties of this group for properties with the shared key as binding source, even in the strongest model. (Provided the key derivation function is modeled as a random oracle.) Interestingly, however, QSF does *not* satisfy any property without the key as binding source—i.e., it does not satisfy MAL-BIND-CT-K and MAL-BIND-CT-PK. The former is unsurprising: QSF already does not satisfy the analogous property in the weaker models, so for similar reasons (and per the binding hierarchy) it does not do so in the MAL model either. The latter is perhaps more surprising, as QSF did satisfy the analogous properties in the weaker models. However, looking at the statements and proofs for these results, it is evident they rely on (the overwhelming probability of) the distinctness of two independently generated public keys (for KEM_0). As mentioned before, this reasoning step is not possible in the MAL model as the key material is controlled by the adversary. Concretely, the adversary may behave as follows to break the property. First, $\mathcal{A}_1$ chooses any d , which one is somewhat irrelevant; for simplicity, say it chooses DecapsDecaps . Second, $\mathcal{A}_2$ generates a (single) honest key pair for KEM_0 and uses it to produce a

honest encapsulation. Moreover, $\mathcal{A}_2$ generates two (honest) key pairs for the nominal group—making sure they are different—and creates an encapsulation by picking another (honest) secret exponent and raising the base element to it. Recall that, due to $\mathcal{A}_1$'s choice of `DecapsDecaps`, $\mathcal{A}_2$ must return two secret decapsulation keys and two encapsulations, each consisting of a part for KEM_0 and a part for $\mathcal{N}$. In addition, to win the game, (1) the encapsulations must be equal and (2) the public keys (obtained from the provided secret keys) must be different. So, for the two KEM_0 secret key parts, $\mathcal{A}_2$ uses the single such secret key it generated, twice; for the two KEM_0 encapsulation parts, it uses the single such encapsulation it produced, twice. Further, for the two $\mathcal{N}$ secret key parts, it uses both secret exponents it picked, once each; for the two $\mathcal{N}$ encapsulation parts, it uses the single such encapsulation it produced, twice. Crucially, both the resulting secret keys and encapsulations contain *identical and honest* KEM_0 parts, meaning the subsequent corresponding decapsulations performed by the game will succeed (the fact it produces the same result is irrelevant) and, particularly, are *not* aborted. Now, by construction, the $\mathcal{N}$ parts of the secret keys are different secret exponents that correspond to different public keys, implying the overall public keys (for QSF) are different as well, as needed for the adversary to succeed. Furthermore, the $\mathcal{N}$ parts of the encapsulations are equal, implying the overall encapsulations (for QSF) are equal as well, satisfying the other requirement for the adversary to succeed. (Here, the “decapsulation” operation can not fail, so we do not have to consider this possibility.) Concluding, the adversary ends up providing different public keys with the same encapsulation such that all decapsulations succeed. Indeed, this breaks `MAL-BIND-CT-PK` for QSF.²⁸

At this point, it remains to go over the binding properties that *do* have the shared key as binding source. For these properties, we consider one combined statement and proof, given below.

Theorem 50 (QSF Preservation of Malicious Binding (K as Source)). *Let KEM_0 be a KEM with key space $\mathcal{K}_0$, $\mathcal{N}$ a nominal group, $\text{algotlabel} \in \mathcal{L}$ an algorithm-specific label, and $H : \mathcal{K}_0 \times \mathcal{G}^3 \times \mathcal{L} \rightarrow \mathcal{K}$ a random oracle. Further, define $\text{KEM} := \text{QSF}[\text{KEM}_0, \mathcal{N}, H]$. Then, for any adversary $\mathcal{A}$ against `MAL-BIND-P-Q` $\in \{\text{MAL-BIND-K-CT}, \text{MAL-BIND-K,PK-CT}, \text{MAL-BIND-K-PK}, \text{MAL-BIND-K,CT-PK}\}$ for KEM (as defined in Fig. 15), issuing at most $q_H \geq 0$ classical queries to H , it holds that*

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \frac{q_H^2 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|}.$$

If $\mathcal{A}$ may issue quantum queries, it instead holds that

$$\text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{A}) \leq \text{Adv}_{\text{KEM}_0}^{\text{MAL-BIND-P-Q}}(\mathcal{B}) + \frac{q_H^3 + 1}{|\mathcal{K}|},$$

In both of the above, adversary $\mathcal{B} := \mathcal{B}(\mathcal{A})$ is as constructed in the proof of this theorem, issuing at most q_H queries to H .

Proof. Here, the analysis is essentially a one-sided version of that for Theorem 48; or, put differently, a combination of the analyses for Theorem 48 and those for the analogous properties in the `LEAK` model (Theorems 27 and 28). In short, for each of these properties, we start by excluding and bounding the case of a collision in the random oracle, leading to the $(q_H^s + 1)/|\mathcal{K}|$ term. Subsequently, in the remaining case, all inputs to the random oracle are equal; particularly, the shared keys, public keys, and encapsulations originating from the nominal group are equal. It follows that, in this case, the break returned by $\mathcal{A}$ must contain an analogous break for KEM_0 . As such, we can construct

²⁸ Notice that it does not matter whether the resulting shared keys are equal or not; the only requirement related to the shared keys is that they are not $\perp$, i.e., that the decapsulations succeed.

a reduction adversary in a similar fashion as we did in Theorem 48 that perfectly simulates $\mathcal{A}$'s environment and extracts the break, succeeding in its own game. From this, the desired results follows. $\square$